

Translation

When the castles were made, then filled they (them) with devils and evil men. Then seized they the people that they believed possessed any property, both by day and by night, both men and women, and put them in prison, and tortured them (with) indescribable torments in order to get gold and silver, for never were martyrs so tortured as they were.

This is very early Middle English, and not very easy for the modern reader.

‘Me henged up bi the fet and smoked heom mid ful smoke. Me henged bi the tumbes other bi the hefed, and hengen bryniges on her fet. Me dide cnotted strenges abuton here haued and uurythen it dat it gade to the’

Translation

They (‘One’) hanged (them) up by the feet and smoked them with foul smoke. They hanged (them) by the thumbs or by the head, and hung mail-coats on their feet. They put knotted cord about their heads and tightened it so that it entered the brains.

The orthography of the passage still shows the influence of the OE scribal tradition, for instance in the use of a and of the spelling sc for [ʃ] (for example, scort ‘short’).

For [w], too, it sometimes uses wynn (here represented by <w>, as in waron ‘were’), but often instead uses uu (uuaren ‘were’), and for [v] it most often uses u, not f (for example, deoules ‘devils’). It uses both thorn and eth, but alongside these is now found th (bathe ‘both’), and instead of cw we see the French spelling qu (quarterne ‘cell, dungeon’, from OE weartern).

OE ā is still represented by a, not o (for example, ta ‘when’, mare ‘more, greater’), presumably because the change of ā to ō had not yet taken place in the part of the East Midland area where the text was written.

For the nouns, the normal plural in the passage is -(e)s (castles, bryniges), and in several words this is used where in Old English there was a different one, for example tumbes and snakes.

This had the OE plural forms tuman and snacan. There is however one plural ending -en, in the word halechen ‘saints’, from OE hālgan.

Topic – 100: Middle English: Semantics and Syntax

In this topic semantic and syntactic features of Middle English are discussed with the help of sample texts.

‘ta te castles uuaren maked, ta fylden hi mid deoules and yuele men. ta namen hi ta men te hi wenden dat ani god hefden, bathe be nihtes and be daies, carlmen and wimmen, and diden heom in prisun, and pined heom efter gold and syluer untellendlice pining, for ne uuaren naure nan martyrs swa pined alse hi waron.’

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There are certain points of grammar which remind us of Old English. The pronouns of the third-person plural are the English forms *hi*, *heom* and *her(e)*, not the Scandinavian *they*, *them*, *their*.

Syntax

Some examples of V–S–O order (such as, ‘then seized they the people’).

‘ta te castles uuaren made, ta fylden hi mid deoules and yuele men. ta namen hi ta men te hi wenden dat ani god hefdan, bathe be nihtes and be daies, carlmen and wimmen, and diden heom in prisun, and pined heom efter gold and syluer untellendlice pining, for ne uuaren naure nan martyrs swa pined alse hi waron.’

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Despite these resemblances to Old English, there are also decided differences. This is especially seen in the inflections which are very much reduced compared to Old English. Adjectives have lost almost all of their endings: there is a plural *-e* on some of them (such as *yuele*), but otherwise nothing. For example, ‘mid ful’ smoke would in Old English have been ‘mid fūlum smocan’, with inflections for the dative singular. The definite article is almost invariably ‘te’ or ‘the’, as in ‘te castles and bi the fet’. There is one example of the plural *ta* (in *ta men*). In Old English, of course, the definite article was fully declined. The equivalent of ‘bi the fet’ would have been *be tǣm fōtum*, the preposition *be* governing the dative. An interesting case ‘be nihtes’ and ‘be daies’. A halfway house between the Old English ‘nihtes and dages’, in which the genitive inflection ‘-es’ has an adverbial force, and the modern *by night and day*. The ME writer has introduced the preposition *by* but has also retained the OE *-es* ending.

Lesson 21

HISTORY OF ENGLISH FROM 1500 TO 1650- PART I**Topic – 101: Middle to Modern English 1500-1650**

What are the reasons of the shift from Middle English to Modern English?

All Middle English long vowels underwent extensive alteration during this period. However, short vowels, in accented syllables, remained comparatively stable. If we compare Chaucer's pronunciation of the short vowels with ours, we note only two changes of importance: those of 'a' and 'u'. In some cases, this ME *a* represented in OE as *æ* (*at, apple, back*), and the new pronunciation was therefore a return to approximately the form that the word had had in Old English. It is the usual pronunciation in America and a considerable part of southern England today. The change that *u* underwent was what is known as unrounding. In Chaucer's pronunciation this vowel was like the *u* in *full*. By the sixteenth century, it seems to have become, in most words, the sound we have in *but* (e.g., *cut, sun; love*, with the Anglo-Norman spelling of *o* for *u*). So far as the short vowels are concerned, it is clear that a person today would have little difficulty in understanding the English of any period of the language.

Topic – 102: The Great Vowel Shift

What does the Great Vowel Shift in the history of English language mean?

The situation is very different when we consider the long vowels. In Chaucer's pronunciation, these had still their so-called 'continental' value—that is, *a* was pronounced like the *a* in *father* and not as in *name*. Also in Chaucer's pronunciation *e* was either like the *e* in *there* or the *a* in *mate*, but not like the *ee* in *meet*. But in 15th century, a great change happened i.e. all the long vowels gradually came to be pronounced with a greater elevation of the tongue and closing of the mouth. Most of the long vowels had approximately acquired their present pronunciation at least by the sixteenth century. The change occurred at the end of the seventeenth century and had become general by the middle of the eighteenth. The spelling of English had become fixed in a general way before the shift and therefore did not change when the quality of the long vowels changed. Consequently, our vowel symbols no longer correspond to the sounds they once represented in English and still represent in the other modern languages.

Topic – 103: The Weakening of Unaccented Vowels

A little observation and reflection shows us that in unaccented syllables too, the spelling does not accurately represent the pronunciation today. This is because in all periods of the language, the vowels of unstressed syllables have had a tendency to weaken and then often to disappear. This is true of all parts of a word. The weakening is especially noticeable in words from French where an accented vowel came to be unaccented in English. In recent times, the quality of the vowel has been restored to something like its earlier character, but even when the vowel has been restored in standard speech, the weakened form is generally apparent in informal speech and in the dialects.

Topic – 104: Changing Socio-historical Context (1500-1650)

To understand language change during this time, we need to understand the relationship between social conditions and language change during the Renaissance. Particular events often have recognizable and far-reaching effects. The Norman Conquest and the Black Death are typical instances. But there are also more general conditions that come into being and are no less influential. The Modern English period's beginning can be placed at 1500. There were certain new conditions that previously did not exist or were present in only a limited way. They caused English to develop along somewhat different lines from those that had characterized its history in the Middle Ages.

New Factors

- Printing press
- Rapid spread of popular education
- Increased communication
- Means of communication
- Growth of specialized knowledge
- Emergence of various forms of self-consciousness about language
- Invention of printing about the middle of the fifteenth century exercised a far reaching influence on all the vernacular languages of Europe
- Introduced into England about 1476 by William Caxton
- Printing made rapid progress
- A century later manuscript books were seldom seen and never used

Topic – 105: Language Change: Renaissance

At the public level, a similar self-consciousness has driven issues of language policy over the past four centuries long before 'language policy' acquired its modern meaning. The beginnings of this public discussion are evident in the sixteenth-century defense of English – debates about orthography and the enrichment of the vocabulary. Anxiety about language policy and a new urgency in the second half of the 17th century could be felt. From the 18th century, proposals for an academy were presented. There was a growing self-consciousness about the shape of English language. With the growth of specialized knowledge, English language needed new vocabulary also because now Latin became less and less the vehicle for learned discourse. The rapid accumulation of new knowledge and less publishing of specialized and learned works in Latin also played a role. Self-consciousness about language had two aspects: individual & public.

Lesson 22

HISTORY OF ENGLISH FROM 1500 TO 1650- PART II**Topic – 106: Changing Vocabulary (1500-1650)**

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

Factors previously discussed are as follows:

- The Norman Conquest
- The Black Death
- More general - less influential

Some of the new conditions come into play that previously had not existed at all or were present in limits. These conditions caused English to develop along somewhat different lines from those that had characterized its history in the Middle Ages.

Further factors are:

- Printing press
- Rapid spread of education
- Increased communication
- Effect on Vocabulary
- Both radical and conservative
- Radical in terms of vocabulary
- Conservative in terms of grammar

A radical force means anything that promotes change in language. Now these conditions are favorable to the spread of ideas and stimulating to the growth of the vocabulary. Apart from the special effects of the Norman Conquest, in the Middle Ages, changes in vocabulary were not so great.

Topic – 107: Changing Grammar (1500-1650)

The case of grammar was opposite to vocabulary. Changes in vocabulary were radical. On the other hand, treatment of grammar was conservative. The question is: what do we mean by conservative? It means something or somebody that tends to preserve the existing status. There was a relationship of various agencies in this regard:

- Printing press
- The reading habit
- The advances of learning
- Science
- Increased communication

The paradox of the situation was favorable to the spread of ideas and was stimulating to the growth of the vocabulary. But it created social consciousness to work actively toward the promotion and

maintenance of a standard, especially in grammar and usage. So, changes in grammar have been relatively slight. But in the Middle English period changes in grammar were revolutionary.

Topic – 108: Problem of Orthography (1500-1650)

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

For the English, as for the French and the Italians, in the 16th century the question of orthography or ‘right writing,’ as Mulcaster preferred to call it, was important. Generally speaking, the spelling of the modern languages in the Middle Ages had attempted with fair success to represent the pronunciation of words. The same is true of English, though Norman scribes have introduced considerable confusion.

How did they do so? The answer is:

- They tried to write a language that they knew imperfectly
- Followed pronunciation to create spelling
- Carried French habits

The confusion was increased when certain spellings gradually became conventional while the pronunciation slowly changed. Reason was because the corresponding word in Latin was spelled so. For example, (*debitum, dubitare*)

In the sixteenth century, the variability of English spelling existed and there was an instability that people felt. There were limits to its variety and inconsistency. Spellings varied more from writer to writer. Spellings also varied according to education and temperament. In spellings, Mulcaster’s contribution cannot be denied. His contribution was of moderation. He could see the futility of trying to make it phonetic and was willing to compromise. The basis of his reform, therefore, was custom or usage. This he defines not as the practice of the ignorant, but as the practice of learned community as well – ‘wherein the skillful and best learned do agree.’ Overall, we can notice that in the first half of the next century, a tendency towards uniformity increased steadily. Fixation of English spelling is generally associated with Dr. Johnson. In *The New World of English Words* published (1658) by Milton’s nephew Edward Phillips, the compiler says: ‘As for orthography, it will not be requisite to say any more of it then may conduce to the readers direction in the finding out of words.’

Spelling was one of the problems that the English language began consciously to face in the sixteenth century. During the period from 1500 to 1650, it was fairly settled.

Topic – 109: Issues and Struggles for Recognition

The English had attained an established position as the language of popular literature. But a strong tradition still sanctioned the use of Latin. The Renaissance was a time of ‘revival of learning.’ Records of Greek civilization became once more available. Latin and Greek were the key to the world’s knowledge and were highly esteemed for poetry, oratory, and philosophy. English faced a competition. English had a recent history of:

- A vulgar tongue
- Being immature
- Unpolished with limited resources

- Could not express abstract ideas

The real force behind the use of English was:

- A popular demand
- All sorts of men from different spheres of life
- To share in the fruits of the Renaissance

Topic – 110: The Problem of Enrichment

In 1531, Sir Thomas Elyot published *The Governour*. The name of the work had logic because it had to do with the training of those who in the future would be occupied at court. So, it can be concluded that the need for enrichment of language was realized on a very conscious level. The question was how to handle the problem of enrichment of English? The answer lied in the popular demand. But it needed support and approval of the elite.

Lesson 23**HISTORY OF ENGLISH FROM 1500 TO 1650- PART III****Topic – 111: Defence of Borrowing Compromise**

Dryden asserted, 'I trade both with the living and the dead, for the enrichment of our native tongue.' He continued: 'We have enough in England to supply our necessity, but if we will have things of magnificence and splendor, we must get them by commerce.' The innovators had precedent on their side. Not only English borrowed, all other languages including Latin and Greek did so too. The strangeness of the new words, they argued, would soon wear off. As Mulcaster observed, we must first become acquainted with any new thing 'and make the thing familiar if it seems to be strange.'

Compromise

The opposition to inhorn terms was at its height in the middle of the sixteenth century. At the end of Elizabeth's reign, borrowing had gone so far that it resulted in strong criticism/attack on borrowing of words. The attack was rather directed at the abuse of the procedure than at the procedure itself. The use of unfamiliar words could easily be overdone.

Enthusiast and the Pedant

It needs to be considered from these perspectives:

- Criticism of reasonable people upon the practice
- Sweeping terms
- Inconsistent with their own usage
- Puttenham, for example, warned against inhorn terms. Though he himself admits having to use some of them. He defends the words like *scientific*, *major domo*, *politien* (politician), *conduct* (verb), and others.
- Nobody could wholly avoid the use of the new words
- Writers differed in extent

So, the safest course was a middle one, to borrow, but 'without too manifest insolence and too wanton affectation.'

Topic – 112: Permanent Additions & Adaptations

Exaggeration of a critic like Wilson: He thought that much of the effort to introduce new words into the language was pedantic and ill-advised. Some of the words Wilson ridicules seem forced, but it would be a mistake to conclude all or even a large part of the additions. Many of them are in such common use today; it's hard to realize that to the Elizabethan, they (borrowed words) were strange and difficult. Elyot, for instance, needed a single word for 'all maner of lerning.' Some called it the world of science, others the circle of doctrine, but the one word solution came from Greek that is *encyclopedia*. The words that were introduced at this time were often basic words—nouns, adjectives, verbs.

Examples of Nouns

allurement, allusion, anachronism, atmosphere, autograph, capsule, denunciation, dexterity, disability, disrespect, excursion, expectation, jurisprudence etc.

Among Adjectives

agile, appropriate, conspicuous, dexterous, expensive, external, habitual, hereditary, impersonal, insane, jocular, malignant etc.

Among the Verbs

Adapt, alienate, assassinate, benefit, consolidate, disregard (introduced by Milton), emancipate, erupt, excavate, exert, exhilarate, exist, extinguish, harass, meditate (which Sidney introduced) etc.

In fact, most of the words are from Latin, though some are Greek from where they were adopted earlier into Latin. Here are a few examples:

anachronism, atmosphere, autograph

antipathy, antithesis, chaos, chronology, climax, crisis, critic,

dogma, emphasis, enthusiasm, epitome, parasite, parenthesis, pathetic, pneumonia, scheme, skeleton, system, tactics

Route of Entry of Words

Greek words came into English through Latin or French. But in the Renaissance, the renewed study of Greek led to direct introduction.

Examples: *anonymous, criterion, idiosyncrasy, lexicon, tantalize, thermometer, and tonic.*

Adaptation

- Some words, in entering the language, retained their original form; others underwent change.
- *Climax, appendix, epitome, exterior, delirium, and axis still have their Latin form.*
- Adaptation through cutting off the Latin ending. For example, *Conjectural* (L. *conjectural-is*), *consult* (L. *consult-are*), *exclusion* (L. *exclusion-em*), and *exotic* (L. *exotic-us*) show how easily this could be done.

Sometimes, it is necessary to bring the word into accord with the usual English forms. So, Latin ending *-us* in adjectives was changed to *-ous* (*conspicu- us > conspicuous*) or was replaced by *-al* as in *external* (L. *externus*). Latin nouns ending in *-tas* were changed in English to *-ty* (*brevity < brevitās*). Also nouns ending in *-antia, -entia* appear in English with the ending *-ance, -ence* or *-ancy, -ency*. Adjectives ending in *-bilis* take the usual English (or French) ending *-ble*. Examples are *consonance, concurrence, constancy, frequency, considerable, susceptible*. Overall, we can say that additions in English language took place on a permanent basis either by directly adding words or by adapting and modifying them.

Topic – 113: Giving New Meanings

If we trace the history of the English language, we realize that words were borrowed more than once. Latin words *episcopus* and *discus* in OE as *bishop* and *dish* and were again borrowed later to make our words *episcopal* and *disc* (also *dais*, *desk*, and *discus*).

Permanent Additions & Adaptations

In the same way, *chaos* and *malignity* were apparently reintroduced in the sixteenth century. **Intelligence** is used once in Gower and occasionally in the fifteenth century. In *The Governour Elyot*: '*intelligence is nowe used for an elegant worde where there is mutuall treaties or appoyntementes, eyther by letters or message.*'

When second time a word is borrowed, it carries same or a different meaning; both the options and possibilities are equally significant. Word **fastidious** in 1440 meant '*proud, scornful*'. A century later it was used in more usual Latin sense of '*distasteful, disgusting.*' However, its modern meaning is '*hard to please, fussy*' etc. Chaucer uses the words *artificial*, *declination*, *hemisphere* in astronomical senses, but their present use is due to the sixteenth century. The word **object** was found earlier in the sense of '*cast off, rejected,*' but was reintroduced in its present meaning in the Renaissance.

Among the Verbs we find examples of the following: *adapt*, *alienate*, *assassinate*, *benefit*, *consolidate*, *disregard* (introduced by Milton), *emancipate*, *erupt*, *excavate*, *exert*, *exhilarate*, *exist*, *extinguish*, *harass*, *meditate* (which Sidney introduced) etc.

Topic – 114: Reinforcement Through French

It is not always possible to say whether a word is directly from Latin or came indirectly through French. Reason for this uncertainty is that a wholesale enrichment was going on simultaneously in French. The same words were being introduced in both languages. Often the two streams of influence merged. But of course, first hand borrowing happened. Word *fact* represents the Latin *factum* and not the French *fait*, which was taken into English earlier as *feat*. Verbs like *confiscate*, *congratulate*, and *exonerate* are formed from the Latin participle (*confiscat-us*, etc.) and not from the French *confisquer*, *congratuler*, *exonerer*. The form *prejudicate* is Latin while *prejudge* represents French *prejuger*. *Instruct* and *subtract* have Latin ancestry (*instructus*, *subtractus*). Why is it so? Well, the French *instruire* and *subtraire* would have become in English *instroy* (like *destroy*) and *subtray* (which is found in the fifteenth century). *Conjugation* is probably a direct importation from Latin (*conjugation-em*) since the more usual form in French was *conjugaison*.

Sometimes the occurrence of a word in English earlier than in French (e.g., *obtuse*) points to the direct adoption from Latin, as *confidence*, *confident*, which are in French as *confiance*, and *confiant*. Still many words have come into English from Latin or French. Verbs like *consist* and *explore* could come either from the Latin *consistere* and *explorare* or the French *consister* and *explorer*. *Conformation*, *conflagration*, and many other similar nouns may represent either Latin *conformation-em*, *conflagration-em* or French *conformation*, *conflagration*. So adjectives like *affable*, may represent the Latin *affabilis* or the French *affable*, etc. Ultimately, all of these have Latin origin. In many cases, French may have offered a precedent for introducing the Latin words into English and may have assisted in their general adoption.

Topic – 115: Permanent Additions and Adaptations

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

Sixteenth-century purists objected to three classes of strange words, which they characterized as:

1. Inkhorn terms
2. Oversea language
3. Chaucerisms

The foreign borrowings in this period were by no means confined to learned words taken from Latin and Greek. English vocabulary at this time was borrowing from more than fifty languages which included the following major languages:

- Latin
- Greek
- French
- Italian
- Spanish

A great role was also played by French Travel and Consumption of French books which is reflected in such words as *alloy, ambushade, bombast, chocolate, comrade, detail, duel, entrance, equip, essay, explore, naturalize, probability, progress, shock etc.* But the English also traveled frequently in Italy, observed Italian architecture, and brought back not only Italian manners and styles of dress but also Italian words. Protests against the Italianate Englishman are frequent in Elizabethan literature. Objection was about the impact that it corrupted morals, brought outlandish fashions, and ‘powdered their talk with oversea language.’ Nevertheless, Italian words, like Italian fashions, were frequently adopted in England. Words like *algebra, balcony, design, granite, piazza, portico, stanza, and volcano* began to be heard on the lips of Englishmen or to be found in English books. Many other Italian words were introduced through French or adapted to French forms, words like: *battalion, bankrupt, gala, gazette, grotesque, infantry.*

From *Spanish and Portuguese*, English adopted:

alligator, apricot,, banana, corral,, hammock, hurricane, maize, mosquito, mulatto, negro, peccadillo, potato, rusk, tobacco, and yam.

Reasons that promoted it all included:

- Cosmopolitan tendency
- Spirit of exploration and adventure
- Interest in the New World

Lesson 24

HISTORY OF ENGLISH FROM 1500 TO 1650- PART IV**Topic – 116: Shakespearean Pronunciation**

Shakespeare's pronunciation was not exactly ours, but it was like ours. He pronounced [e] for [i] in some words, just as Pope could still say *tay for Tea*. The falling together of *er, ir, ur* (e.g., *herd, birth, hurt*) was under way but not yet completed. As explained earlier, ME *ē* was sometimes open, sometimes close [ɛ: e:] and the two sounds were still distinct in Shakespeare's day, [e:] and [i:] respectively. Consequently, *sea* [se:] does not normally rhyme with *see* [si:]. So is the case of *heap* with *keep, speak* with *seek*, etc.

Towards the close of the 15th century, an attempt was made to distinguish them. The closer sound was often spelled with *ee* or *ie* (*deep, field*) while the more open sound was as written *ea* (*sea, clean*). But the practice was not consistently carried out. The two sounds are now identical with a variation in spelling. Also notice a considerable difference in the pronunciation of words containing *a*. This regularly developed into [u:], as in *room, food, roof, root, and it retains this sound in many words today*. In some words, the vowel was shortened in the fifteenth century and was unrounded to the sound in *blood, flood*. In still other words, however, it retained its length until about 1700 but was then shortened without being unrounded, giving us the sound in *good, stood, book, foot*.

In Shakespeare's time, there was a much fluctuation in the pronunciation of words containing this Middle English vowel. Consequently, in poetry, *flood* rhymed *blood* but *mood* and *good* rhymed as well. In Dryden, we have same rhyme: *flood—mood—good*, the three developments of the sound at the present day. Only in recent times we find it standardized. Also the quality of vowels there were some differences of accent. On the whole, however, we should probably have very little difficulty in understanding Shakespeare's pronunciation. In Chaucer, it was different because in the fifteenth and sixteenth centuries, the vowels of Middle English especially the long vowels underwent a wholesale, but quite regular, shifting. Notice: 'stone' in Shakespeare's pronunciation has become similar to its present pronunciation (*stone*).

Today the *o* is followed by a slight u glide [stoun] or [stoUn]. Overall his pronunciation is familiar. We find it modern, easy to read and quite regular/stable.

Topic – 117: Grammatical Features in Renaissance Period

English grammar in the sixteenth and early seventeenth century is marked more by the survival of certain forms and usages, which have since disappeared, than by any fundamental developments. The great changes of reduced inflections of Old English had already taken place. However, retentions of some inflections took place. In fact, Shakespearean reader can notice minor differences of form in the framing, syntax, and idiom. These differences of syntax and idiom, although attract attention, are not sufficient to interfere seriously with understanding.

Overall, in terms of grammar and syntax it was a period of stability. Standardization had already taken place. London standard was accepted and people were sticking to it. We may contrast it with vocabulary that was heavily enriched in this period. But overall grammar and syntax do not show much modification or transition.

Topic – 118: Renaissance Noun, Adjectives & Pronoun

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

Noun

The only inflections retained in the noun were those marking the plural and the possessive singular. For plurals, s-plural had become generalized, except for a few nouns like sheep and swine with unchanged plurals and a few others like mice and feet with mutated vowels, with no other forms or inflections. In the sixteenth century, however, there are certain survivals of the old weak plural in -n. Mostly shift to s- forms took place. For example: fon (foes), kneen (knees), fleen (fleas). All modern forms are used by *him* (Shakespeare). But he sometimes has *eyen* (eyes), *shoon* (shoes). We can relate it to today where we still use *children* and *brethren* or *oxen*. An interesting peculiarity of the times is of the 'his-genitive.' In Middle English, the -es of the genitive, being unaccented, was frequently written and pronounced -is, -ys. The ending was thus often identical to the pronoun *his*, which commonly lost its h when unstressed.

Adjective

As far as the adjective is concerned, it had already lost all its endings. It no longer expressed distinctions of gender, number, and case. However, chief interest was in the form of the comparative and superlative degrees. Since Old English times, two methods to form comparative and superlative existed: either with the endings -er and -est or with the adverbs more and most. But here we had more variety. Shakespearian comparisons *honestest*, *violentest* are now replaced by the analytical forms.

Double comparatives were another striking feature. He and his contemporaries have used *more larger*, *most boldest*. For example, Mark Antony's *This was the most unkindest cut of all* is an instance that can be quoted.

The chief development affecting the adjective in modern times has been the gradual settling down of usage so that monosyllables take -er and -est. Most adjectives of two or more syllables (especially those with suffixes like those in frugal, learned, careful, poetic, active, famous) take more and most.

The Pronoun

For the establishment of the personal pronoun in the form that it has had ever since following three changes were involved:

1. Disuse of *thou*, *thy*, *thee*
2. Substitution of *you* for *ye* as a nominative case
3. Introduction of *its* as possessive of *it*

In the earliest period of English, the distinction between thou and ye was simply one of the number. Thou was the singular and ye the plural form for the second person pronoun. In time, however, a quite different distinction grew up.

13th Century

Singular forms (*thou, thy, thee*) were used among familiars and in addressing children or inferior rank. Plural forms (*ye, your, you*) began to be used for respect to superior.

A New Possessive Neuter: Its

The neuter pronoun in OE was declined, hit, his, him, hit, which by merging of the dative and accusative under *hit* in Middle English became *hit, his, hit*. In unstressed positions, *hit* weakened to *it*. At the beginning of the modern period, the usual form for the subject and object was in use. *His* remained the proper form of the possessive. Sometimes Shakespeare uses: (*when Horatio, describes the ghost in Hamlet*): It lifted up it head, or when the Fool in Lear says: The hedge-sparrow fed the cuckoo so long, that it had it head bit off by it young. So, Renaissance had an impact on nouns, adjectives as well as pronouns.

Topic – 119: Verb in Renaissance English Period

A casual reader is aware of certain differences of usage in the verb that distinguish it. These differences are sometimes so slight as to give only a mildly unfamiliar tinge to the construction. Lennox asks in *Macbeth*, *Goes the King hence today?* i.e. use of interrogative form without an auxiliary; according to ME, he should say:

- *Does the king go? Or Is the king leaving today?*
- Instead of *has been*, Shakespeare often says *is*.

Impersonal use of the verb was more common than today. Example: *It yearns me not, it dislikes me*. Certain differences in inflection can be noticed. By the end of the sixteenth century, some forms like *tells, gives, says* predominate; though, *doth*, and *hath* – the older usage may have been more common.

Merchant of Venice

The quality of mercy is not strain'd,

It droppeth as the gentle rain from heaven

Upon the place beneath: it is twice bless'd;

It blesseth him that gives and him that takes:...

A writer toward the middle of the century observes: 'howsoever wee use to Write thus, *leadeth it, maketh it, noteth it, raketh it, per-fumeth it, etc.* Yet in our ordinary speech (which is best to be understood) wee say, *leads it, makes it, notes it, rakes it, per-fumes it.*' It is altogether probable that during Shakespeare's lifetime -s became the usual ending for this part of the verb in the spoken language.

In ME, extensive inroads were made in the ranks of the Old English strong verbs. Many of these verbs were lost, and many became weak. A lot of fluctuation and alteration took place in the past tense and past participle. All of this alteration is reflected in the language of Shakespeare and his contemporaries. Verbs that developed weak forms were bide, crow, crowd, flay, mow, dread, sprout, and wade, also some strong forms disappeared. A number of weak forms like blowed, growed, shined, shrinked, swunged were in fairly common use, although these verbs ultimately remained strong. Bote as the past tense of bite (like write—wrote) was still in occasional use. Participle baken is more frequent in the Bible than baked. In Shakespeare's day, there was much more latitude in the inflection of the verb than is permitted today.

Topic – 120: Renaissance: Usage and Idiom

This topic discusses the usage and idiom in the Renaissance English. Language is not merely a matter of words and inflections. We also need to consider idiom and usage.

Examples

Shakespeare says *creeping like snail, with as big heart as thou, in number of our friends, within this mile and half, where modern idiom requires an article in all these cases.* On the other hand, where we say *at length, at last*, Shakespeare says *at the length, at the last*. Again, usage permitted a different placing of the negative—before the verb—as in such expressions as: *I not doubt, it not appears to me, she not denies it.*

So Shakespeare could say:

Thou hast spoken no word all this while—nor understood none neither;

I know not, nor I greatly care not; Nor this is not my nose neither; First he denied you had in him no right;

My father hath no child but I, nor none is like to have; Nor never none shall mistress be of it, save I alone.

Prepositions

Shakespeare says:

*I'll rent the fairest house **in** it after threepence a bay, we should say **at***

*Our fears **in** Banquo stick deep,*

*should say **about**.*

The single preposition **of** shows how many **changes in common idioms have come about since 1600:**

*One that I brought up **of** (from) a puppy; he came **of** (on) an errand to me;*

'Tis pity of (about) him; your name.... I know not, nor by what wonder you do hit of (upon) mine;

And not be seen to wink of (during) all the day; it was well done of (by) you;

I wonder of (at) their being here together;

I am provided of (with) a torchbearer; I have no mind of (for) feasting forth tonight;

I were better to be married of (by) him than of another;

That did but show thee of (as) a fool.'

Generally idiom and usage claim less attention. But no picture of Elizabethan English would be adequate without its fair recognition.

Lesson 25

OVERVIEW OF THE DEVELOPMENT OF RENAISSANCE ENGLISH**Topic – 121: Renaissance: General Characteristics**

The larger spirit of the age is reflected in linguistic matters. A conscious interest in the English language was taken. An attention to its problems is now widely manifested. The fifteenth century had witnessed sporadic attempts by individual writers to embellish their style with ‘aureate terms.’ These attempts show a desire to improve the language, at least along certain limited lines.

But in the 16th Century:

- Books and pamphlets, prefaces and incidental observations were published to support linguistic change in English.
- Language was defended against those who were disposed to compare it unfavorably to Latin or other tongues.
- English recognized its position as the national speech and urged its fitness for learned and literary use.

Overall, this a time that showed a great desire to:

- fix language
- make it stable
- modernize it
- standardize it

Topic – 122: Conscious Efforts for Development

Conscious efforts made during this period for the development of English. A century or two before upper classes were inclined to sending their children abroad for learning correct French accent. Now, English was considered worthy of cultivation. It was to be looked after in the education of the young. Elyot urged that noblemen’s sons should be brought up by those who ‘*speke none englisshe but that which is cleane, polite, perfectly and articulately pronounced, omitting no lettre or sillabl.*’ He observes that he knew some children of noble birth who had ‘attained corrupte and foule pronunciation’ through the lack of such precautions. Also, there was a desire to improve it in various ways, particularly to enlarge its vocabulary and to regulate its spelling. All of these efforts point clearly to a new attitude towards English, an attitude that makes it an object of conscious, and in many ways, fruitful consideration. So, in this period, we attain something as a standard and recognizably ‘modern’.

Topic – 123: Standard Literary Language

This is a period of time when standard and recognizably ‘modern’ English developed. As an effect of the ‘Great Vowel Shift,’ the pronunciation was brought within measurable distance of that which prevails today. The influence of the printing press and the efforts of spelling reformers had resulted in a

form of written English that offers little difficulty to the modern reader. New vocabulary was introduced but as far as grammar is concerned, it was fixed by this time. In the writings of Spenser, Shakespeare, and their contemporaries, a standard literary language is used free from the variations of local dialect. Although Sir Walter Raleigh might speak with a broad Devonshire pronunciation, Spenser and Shakespeare may have traces in their speech of their Lancashire and Warwickshire ancestry. They wrote common English without dialectal idiosyncrasies. So, Puttenham (1589) reminds us: ‘herein we are already ruled by the English Dictionaries and other bookes written by learned men, and therefore it needeth none other direction in that behalfe.’

Some characteristics of the language were not yet completely settled, but the written language in the latter part of the sixteenth century is fully entitled to be called Standard English. The regularization of spellings in this written standard can be seen as early as the mid-fifteenth century in the official documents of Chancery.

Topic – 124: Vigor and Willingness to Venture

English in the Renaissance, at least as we see it in books, was much more plastic than now. People felt freer to mold it to their wills. As far as words were concerned, they were not always distributed into rigid grammatical categories. Adjectives appear as adverbs or nouns or verbs; nouns appear as verbs. In fact, any part of speech could be used as the alternate of any other part.

As Shakespeare wrote ‘*stranger’d with an oath*’

He was fitting the language to his thought, not forcing his thought into the mold of grammar. It was in a language, as in many other respects, an age with the characteristics of youth—vigor, a willingness to venture, and a disposition to attempt the untried. The spirit that animated Hawkins and Drake was not foreign to the language of their time. Overall, the characteristics of language included vigor, enthusiasm, willingness and keenness.

Topic – 125: What is Left Unsettled?

Though a lot of progress was made, a good many features of the language were still unsettled. There still existed a considerable variety of use—alternative forms in the grammar, experiments with new words, variations in pronunciation and spelling. Latitude: clearly permitted among speakers of education and social position. Literary language and good colloquial English were very close. Where one might say, *have wrote or have written with equal propriety, as well as housen or houses, shoon or shoes, one must often have been in doubt over which to use. One heard service also pronounced sarvice.*

Examples

- *certain—sartin,*
- *concern—consarn,*
- *divert—divart,*
- *clerk—clark,*
- *smert—smart, etc.*

These and many other matters were still unsettled at the close of the period. Their settlement was one of the chief concerns of the next age. Overall, this was a time of eagerness, enthusiasm, willingness and acceptance.

Lesson 26**HISTORY OF ENGLISH FROM 1650 TO 1800- PART I****Topic – 126: Impact of 17th Century**

The social, commercial, technological, and intellectual forces that were released in the Renaissance had profound effects on the English language. In the middle and latter part of the seventeenth century, the evolution and interaction of these forces led to a culmination, a series of crises, and an eventual reaction. Both the crises and the responses to them were provoked by transmutations of forces that had energized the Renaissance. These new trends became disruptively intense now.

As far as crisis is concerned, English Civil War (1640) & Restoration of Charles II in 1660 brought instability. However, there was more intellectual turbulence with reference to the matters of language and language use. In comparison to the political turbulence, this was harder to trace. There were new scientists and philosophers vs. religious zeal and occult science accompanied by belief in astrology, alchemy, and witchcraft. Radical Non-conformists and perceived fanatics were lumped together under the label 'Enthusiasts' by writers and scientists connected with the Royal Society, and conservative Anglicans. Supporters of rational science, such as Henry More, Thomas Sprat, John Wilkins, and Robert Boyle were disturbed by the 'ranting' language of the Enthusiasts. More conservative minds were concerned about the very fact of public expression and the sheer bulk of controversial publications. Learned discourse was no longer confined to elite circles. Also practitioners of Natural Science condemned the Enthusiasts and the old authorities. In fact, it was an open controversy and it was still very difficult for people to conceive that open controversy was either safe or beneficial to society.

Result

The 17th century had a more focused public consciousness about language. Yet, mostly educated people recoiled from the solution. Thomas Hobbes proposed that all power must reside in a single political authority. In 1660, a proposed solution was that the Royal Society should work as coordinator and clearing house for English scientific endeavors.

Argument

The English prose of scientists should be stripped of ornamentation and emotive language. It should be plain, precise, and clear. This led to efforts to design universal languages. So, there was an intense awareness of the importance of language in almost every sphere of life. But the Royal Society could neither impose its scheme nor create the 'plain style.'

Topic – 127: The Temper of 18th Century

The first half of the eighteenth century is commonly designated in histories of literature as the Augustan Age in England. The principal characteristics of this age emerged early. But they maintained their influence throughout the century. However, there were some radical challenges in the final two decades. A search for stability can be noticed in these times. There was a strong sense of order. Adventurous individualism and the spirit of independence of the previous era gave way to a desire for system and regularity. Conformity to a standard that the consensus recognizes was considered to be good.

Correctness was an ideal. Attempts were made to formulate rules to define and achieve correctness. Satisfaction in things was much linked to logical explanation. But the powerful new current of scientific rationalism did not sweep away the firmly grounded reverence for classical literature. Latin was still a model and there was a desire for perfection

Topic – 128: Attitude Towards English (1650 to 1800)

In the early eighteenth-century, efforts to standardize, refine, and fix the English language were made. Now, discussions on language took a new turn. Previously, interest was whether English was worthy to replace Latin or not, whether additions in vocabulary were justified or not, and whether a better system of spelling could be introduced or not. Now, for the first time attention to grammar was paid, and it was discovered that grammar was largely un-codified and un-systematized. If we look at the ancient models, we can see that the ancient languages had been reduced to rules; one knew what was right and what was wrong. But in English everything was uncertain. One learned to speak and write as one learned to walk.

Much variation was found even among educated people. This was clearly distasteful to an age that desired an orderly universe. The spontaneous creativity of Shakespeare now led to hesitation and uncertainty. Dryden confessed: he had to translate an idea into Latin. Use of logic for setting the standard of correctness in language often arrives at entirely false conclusions.

The idea was that English has been and is being daily corrupted; it needs correction and refinement, and it should be fixed permanently and protected from change. In other words, it was desired in the eighteenth century to give the language a polished, rational, and permanent form. How mistaken were these goals and methods, you will realize in the study of the next periods in the history of the English language.

Topic – 129: The Problem of Refining English Language

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

- Uncertainty was not the only fault. Another fault was the lack of a standard.
- The natural result of all this was:
 - Corruptions
 - Unchecked language
 - Frequent lament was that language had been steadily going down
 - A regretful backward glance at the good old days

It was Dryden's opinion that '**from Chaucer the purity of the English tongue began**'. He was not convinced about the downward course of language. For Swift, the golden age was that of the great Elizabethans. His views were that there are corruptions in our language, but very few of the best authors have wholly escaped these. Dr. Johnson also agreed with this opinion. In his Dictionary he says: '*I have studiously endeavoured to collect examples and authorities from the writers before the restoration, whose works I regard as the wells of English undefiled, as the pure sources of genuine diction.*'

This talk had a sentimental regard for the past, but was not more serious than the perennial belief that our children are not what their parents were. Swift was a conservative. His beliefs were grounded in a set of political and religious as well as linguistic opinions. He cherished the principle of authority in church and state and criticized the skeptical spirit of inquiry proposed by the Royal Society. Swift upheld the classics, but he also understood the merits of a plain English style, though only when not polluted by crude and careless usages.

George Campbell in his *Philosophy of Rhetoric* (1776) says: ‘I shall just mention another set of barbarisms, which also comes under this class, and arises from the abbreviation of polysyllables, by lopping off all the syllables except the first, or the first and second. Instances of this are *hyp* for *hypochondriac*, *rep* for *reputation*, *ult* for *ultimate*, *penult* for *penultimate*, *incog* for *incognito*, *hyper* for *hypercritic*, *extra* for *extraordinary*. Happily all these affected terms have been denied the public suffrage’. Swift also opposed the tendency to contract verbs like *drudg’d*, *disturb’d*, *rebuk’d*, *fledg’d*

Swift criticized ‘young preachers, fresh from the universities, who use all the modern terms of art, *sham*, *banter*, *mob*, *bubble*, *bully*, *cutting*, *shuffling*, and *palming*, all which, and many more of the like stamp, as I have heard them often in the pulpit, so I have read them in some of those sermons that have made most noise of late.’

In Swift’s letter to the *Tatler* in 1710: he called attention to them again two years later in his *Proposal for Correcting, Improving, and Ascertaining the English Tongue*. Swift published a letter supposedly ‘received some time ago from a most accomplished person in this way of writing’: Sir, I cou’dn’t get the things you sent for all about Town.—I thôt to ha’ come down myself, and then I’d ha’ brout’um; but I han’t don’t, and I believe I can’t do’t, that’s pozz.—Tom begins to g’imself airs because he’s going with the plenipo’s ‘Tis said, the French King will bamboozl’ us agen, which causes many speculations. ...

...The Jacks, and others of that kidney, are very uppish, and alert upon’t, as you may see by their phizz’s.—Will Hazzard has got the hipps, having lost to the tune of five hundr’d pound, thô he understands play very well, nobody better. He has promis’t me upon rep, to leave off play; but you know ‘tis a weakness he’s too apt to give into, thô he has as much wit as any man, nobody more. He has lain incog ever since.—The mobb’s very quiet with us now.—I believe you thôt I banter’d you in my last like a country put.—I sha’n’t leave Town this month, &c.

Swift gives the remedy that the editor should use his position to rid the language of these blemishes.

Topic – 130: The Desire to Fix the Language

One of the most ambitious hopes of the eighteenth century was to stabilize the language and establish it in a form that would be permanent. Swift talked about ‘fixing’ the language, and the word was echoed for fifty years by lesser writers who shared his desire and, like him, believed in the possibility of realizing it. The fear of change was an old one. Bacon, at the end of his life had written to his friend, Sir Toby Matthew (1623), ‘It is true, my labours are now most set to have those works, which I had formerly published,...well translated into Latin.... For these modern languages will, at one time or other, play the bankrupts with books.’

Shortly after the Restoration, the poet Waller wrote (*Of English Verse*):

But who can hope his lines should long

Last, in a daily changing tongue?

While they are new, Envy prevails;

And as that dies, our language fails....

Poets that Lasting Marble seek,

Must carve in Latin or in Greek;

We write in Sand....

A little later Swift wrote: 'How then shall any man, who hath a genius for history equal to the best of the ancients, be able to undertake such a work with spirit and cheerfulness, when he considers that he will be read with pleasure but a very few years, and in an age or two shall hardly be understood without an interpreter?'

Pope echoed the sentiment when he wrote in his *Essay on Criticism*, 'And such as Chaucer is, shall Dryden be.' All these people believed that by taking thought, it would be possible to suspend the processes of growth and decay that characterize a living language. The anonymous author of the pamphlet *Vindex Anglicus: or, The Perfections of the English Language Defended and Asserted* (1644)¹² noted that changes in language are inevitable. James Howell (1630) observed: 'that as all other sublunary things are subject to corruptions and decay,... the learnedest and more eloquent languages are not free from this common fatality.'

Lesson 27

HISTORY OF ENGLISH FROM 1650 TO 1800- PART II**Topic – 131: In the Footsteps of Italy and France**

The threefold problem of standardizing, refining, and fixing: what had been done in this direction by other countries?

Italy and France

These countries have always been an inspiration and example. In both of these lands, the destiny of the language had been confided to an academy. In Italy, the most famous was the Accademia della Crusca, founded in 1582. Its object was the purification of the Italian language. In 1612, it published a dictionary. The dictionary provoked controversy. It went through several editions. The third edition in 1691 was about 3 volumes; whereas, the fourth edition (1729–1738) was about 6 volumes. Thus, it was taken as an impressive example. Perhaps an even more effective precedent was furnished by France. In 1635, Cardinal Richelieu offered a royal charter to a small group of men, who for several years had been meeting once a week to talk about books and to exchange views on literature. The original group was composed of only six or eight; the maximum membership was set at forty. It was named as French Academy.

Major Aim of the French Academy

‘The principal function of the Academy shall be to labor with all possible care and diligence to give definite rules to our language, and to render it pure, eloquent, and capable of treating the arts and sciences.’

Three major aims were:

1. To cleanse the language of impurities, both in writing and spoken language
2. To establish a certain usage of words
3. To compile a dictionary, a grammar, a rhetoric, and a treatise on the art of poetry

The dictionary was the most important project. Work proceeded slowly, and it appeared in 1694. Thus, while England continued to lament the lack of an adequate dictionary; Italy and France both had apparently achieved this object through the agency of academies.

Topic – 132: An English Academy

No doubt the vital incentive to the establishment of an academy in England came from the example of France and Italy. The suggestion occurs early in the seventeenth century. Indeed, learned societies had been known in England from 1572. With the Restoration, discussion of an English Academy became much more frequent. In the very year that Charles II was restored to the throne, a volume was published with the title *New Atlantis...Continued by R. H. Esquire (1660)* in which, as a feature of his ideal commonwealth, the author pictured an academy ‘to purifie our Native Language from Barbarism or

Solecism, to the height of Eloquence, by regulating the terms and phrases thereof into constant use of the most significant words, proverbs, and phrases, and justly appropriating them either to the Lofty, mean, or Comic stile.' Shortly thereafter, the idea of an academy received support from several influential persons, notably from Dryden and John Evelyn.

In the dedication of the *Rival Ladies* (1664) Dryden says, 'I am Sorry, that (speaking so noble a Language as we do) we have not a more certain Measure of it, as they have in France, where they have an Academy erected for the purpose, and Indow'd with large Privileges by the present King.'

A few months later, the Royal Society took a step. This society, founded in 1662, was mainly scientific in its interests. But in December 1664, it adopted a resolution. The Resolution stated:

'there were persons of the Society whose genius was very proper and inclined to improve the English tongue, Particularly for philosophic purposes, it was voted that there should be a committee for improving the English language; and that they meet at Sir Peter Wyche's lodgings in Gray's-Inn once or twice a month, and give an account of their proceedings, when called upon.'

The committee had twenty-two members including Dryden, Evelyn, Sprat, and Waller. Evelyn, once unable to attend, wrote out what he conceived to be the things that they might attempt. He proposed the compilation of a grammar and some reform of the spelling, particularly the leaving out of superfluous letters. This might be followed by a 'Lexicon or collection of all the pure English words by themselves; then those which are derivative from others, with their prime, certaine, and natural signification; then, the symbolical: so as no innovation might be us'd or favour'd, at least, 'till there should arise some necessity of providing a new edition, & of amplifying the old upon mature advice.' He further suggested collections of technical words, 'exotic' words, dialect expressions, and archaic words that might be revived. Finally, the translations might be made of some of the best of Greek and Latin literature and even out of modern languages, as models of elegance and style.

John Dryden was the moving spirit in this gesture of the Royal Society. He was not a pioneer in suggesting the creation of an English Academy but the most consistent advocate. However, at the end of the century, the idea was clearly in the air. In 1697, Defoe in his *Essay upon Projects* devoted one article to the subject of academies.

Topic – 133: Swift's Proposal

By the beginning of the eighteenth century, grounds had been prepared and time was ripe for an authoritative plan for an academy. With the example of Richelieu and the French Academy, doubtless in his mind, Swift addressed a letter in 1712 to the earl of Oxford, Lord Treasurer of England. It was published under the title *A Proposal for Correcting, Improving, and Ascertaining the English Tongue*. After the usual formalities, he then launches an attack against the innovations he had objected to in his paper, the *Tatler*, two years before. The remedy he offered was that a free judicious choice should be made of such persons, as are generally allowed to be best qualified for such a work, without any regard to quality, party, or profession. ... 'These, to a certain number at least, should assemble at some appointed time and place, and fix on rules, by which they design to proceed. What methods they will take, is not for me to prescribe.' The work of this group, as he conceives it, is described in the following terms:

‘The persons who are to undertake this work will have the example of the French before them to imitate, where these have proceeded right, and to avoid their mistakes.’ He further added:

‘... Besides the grammar-part, wherein we are allowed to be very defective, they will observe many gross improprieties, which, however authorized by practice, and grown familiar, ought to be discarded. They will find many words that deserve to be utterly thrown out of our language, many more to be corrected, and perhaps not a few long since antiquated, which ought to be restored on account of their energy and sound.’

The publication of Swift’s *Proposal* marks the culmination of the movement for an English Academy. Swift’s proposal was objected and opposed by several people, mainly on political grounds. John Oldmixon, published *Reflections on Dr. Swift’s Letter to the Earl of Oxford, about the English Tongue*. It was a violent attack with political motives. He said ‘I should rejoice with him, if a way could be found out to *fix our Language forever, that like the Spanish cloak, it might always be in Fashion.*’ But such a thing is impossible. Swift’s proposal was not followed up properly and no serious effort was made to accomplish the purpose.

Topic – 134: Objection to Academy

The idea of establishing an academy died hard. 18th century showed a growing skepticism. The early enthusiasm was replaced with doubts. Dr. Johnson asserted in the Preface to his *Dictionary* (1755):

‘Those who have been persuaded to think well of my design, require that it should fix our language, and put a stop to those alterations which time and chance have hitherto been suffered to make in it without opposition...With this consequence I will confess that I flattered myself for a while; but now begin to fear that I have indulged expectation which neither reason nor experience can justify. When we see men grow old and die at a certain time one after another, from century to century, we laugh at the elixir that promises to prolong life to a thousand years; ...’ He said, ‘the French language has visibly changed under the inspection of the academy.’

Another ground for objection was moved by a spirit of personal liberty in the use of their language. A policy of no interference appeals to them. After the publication of Johnson’s *Dictionary*, advocacy of an academy becomes less frequent.

Topic – 135: Johnson’s Dictionary- A Milestone

The publication of *A Dictionary of the English Language*, by Samuel Johnson, A.M. in 1755, in two folio volumes, was hailed as a great achievement. It was justly so regarded. It was the work of one man laboring almost without assistance. It was done in a short space of seven years only.

Defects

It had defects. Judged by modern standards, it was painfully inadequate. Its etymologies are often ludicrous. It is marred in places by prejudice. It includes a host of words with a very questionable right to be regarded as belonging to the language.

Strengths

It had positive aspects and virtues as well. It exhibited the English vocabulary much more fully than had ever been done before. It offered a spelling, fixed, even if sometimes badly, that could be accepted as standard. It supplied thousands of quotations illustrating the use of words. Johnson himself remarked in his preface, for instances where his own explanation is inadequate ‘the sense may easily be collected entire from the examples.’

‘Every language,’ he says in the preface, ‘has its anomalies, which, though inconvenient, and in themselves once unnecessary, must be tolerated among the imperfections of human things, and which require only to be registered, that they may not be increased, and ascertained, that they may not be confounded: but every language has likewise its improprieties and absurdities, which it is the duty of the lexicographer to correct or proscribe.’

‘The chief intent of it is to preserve the purity, and ascertain the meaning of our English idiom.’

He sums it up:

- The pronunciation of the language may be fixed.
 - Its attainment facilitated.
 - Its purity preserved.
 - Its use ascertained.
 - Its duration lengthened.
- In 1756 Sheridan wrote, ‘if our language should ever be fixed, he must be considered by all posterity as the founder, and his dictionary as the corner stone.’

Lesson 28

HISTORY OF ENGLISH FROM 1650 TO 1800- PART III**Topic – 136: The 18th Century Grammarians**

What Dr. Johnson had done for the vocabulary was attempted for the syntax by the grammarians of the eighteenth century. Books on English grammar had begun to appear in the sixteenth century. In the seventeenth, they were compiled by even such authors as Ben Jonson and Milton. But they were generally written for teaching foreigners the language or providing a basis for the study of Latin grammar. Only in the 18th century was English grammar viewed as a subject deserving of study in itself. Even then freedom from the notions derived from Latin was something to be claimed as a novelty and not always observed. William Loughton, Schoolmaster at Kensington, wrote *Practical Grammar of The English Tongue* (1734). It had five editions. He was against those who ‘have attempted to force our Language (contrary to its Nature) to the Method and Rules of the Latin Grammar.’ He goes so far as to discard the terms *noun*, *adjective*, and *verb*, substituting *names*, *qualities*, *affirmations*. In fact, the compilers were the only people with knowledge of the classical languages. They tried to keep the traditional concepts and made an effort that was ill-fitting to an analytic language.

The 18th century grammarians, the decade beginning in 1760, witnessed a striking outburst of interest in English grammar. A large number of books were written. It had works of men with no special qualifications. The works were not in the mold of the practical, prescriptive grammars. Overall, the questions of grammar and usage had become a matter of popular interest.

Topic – 137: Confusion and Issues Related to Division in Stages

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

The goals of linguistic scholarship vary from author to author in the present century, so one must recognize a variety of concerns in the eighteenth century. Overall eighteenth century grammarians followed:

- A prescriptive tradition of grammar
- Not considering the usage

The Aims of the Grammarians

The aims were to:

1. codify the principles of the language and reduce it to rule
2. settle disputed points and decide cases of divided usage
3. point out common errors or what were supposed to be errors, and thus correct and improve the language

All three of these aims were pursued concurrently. Academy aimed to systematize the facts of English grammar and draw up rules by which all questions could be viewed and decided. In his dictionary, Johnson had declared, *'When I took the first survey of my undertaking, I found our speech copious without order, and energetick without rules wherever I turned my view, there was perplexity to be disentangled, and confusion to be regulated.'*

The grammarians became lawgivers who were not content to record facts. They pronounced judgments of two forms where one must be wrong. They abhorred uncertainty. A choice must be made. Once a question had been decided, all instances of contrary usage were unequivocally condemned.

Lowth says:

'The principal design of a Grammar of any Language, is to teach us to express ourselves with propriety in that Language; and to enable us to judge of every phrase and form of construction, whether it be right or not. The plain way of doing this is, to lay down rules, and to illustrate them by examples. But, beside shewing what is right, the matter may be further explained by pointing out what is wrong.'

Overall, the questions of grammar and usage had become a matter of popular interest.

Topic – 138: The Beginnings of Prescriptive Grammar

To prescribe and to proscribe seem to have been coordinate aims of the grammarians. Many of today's conventions in books were first stated in this period. The prescriptive distinction between the two verbs *lie* and *lay* was first made in the second half of the 18th century. Before that, intransitive *lay* was *not* considered a solecism. The expressions *had rather*, *had better* were condemned by Johnson, Lowth, and Campbell. It would be possible to point out other matters of usage disputed by grammarians. For example, the proper case after *than* and *as* was a question that troubled them:

- He is taller than I, or me.

Lowth's view is accepted till today; the pronoun is determined by the construction to be supplied or understood. So,

- He is older than she.
- He likes you better than me.

Another puzzling question concerned the case before the gerund (*I don't like him doing that or his doing that*). 'His' here was opposed by Harris, Lowth, and others, but Webster held that this was 'the genuine English idiom' and the only permissible form. His opinion has come to be the one widely held. Finally, we may note that the eighteenth century is responsible for the condemnation of the double negative. Lowth stated the rule that we are now bound by: 'Two negatives in English destroy one another, or are equivalent to an affirmative.' Thus a useful idiom was banished from polite speech.

Topic – 139: Problems of Prescriptive Grammar

While acknowledging the results attained by the eighteenth-century grammarians and reformers, it is necessary to emphasize the serious limitations. Their greatest weakness was that they did not

recognize the importance of usage. They did not realize and refused to acknowledge that changes in language are impulsive and can be unreasonable. In fact, they approached most of the questions through logic and imposed authority. Hence, the constant attempt was to legislate one construction into use and another out of use. No recognition was shown for the legitimacy of divided usage. Noah Webster said when they refused to base their statements on the facts of current use, they were refusing to preserve an agreement between books and practice. They were contributing 'very much to create and perpetuate differences between the written and spoken language.' Root cause of all this was ignorance of the processes of linguistic change. The historical study of English was still in its infancy. Though the materials were rapidly becoming available, they did not realize their importance.

Topic – 140: Attempts to Reform Vocabulary

Many weaknesses characterized the attempts to reform the vocabulary at this time. Everyone felt competent; everyone prescribed; and everyone proscribed.

Swift said: 'I have done my best,' 'for some Years past to stop the Progress of *Mobb and Banter*, but have been plainly borne down by Numbers, and betrayed by those who promised to assist me.'

George Harris objected to expressions such as:

- *Chaulking out a way*
- *Handling a subject*
- *Driving a bargain*
- *Bolstering up an argument*

In a volume of Sketches by 'Launcelot Temple,' the author attacks expressions such as:

- Encroach
- Inculcate
- Purport
- Betwixt
- Methinks
- Subject-matter

Regarding the last expression **Subject-matter**, he says: '*in the Name of everything* that's disgusting and detestable, what is it? Is it one or two ugly words? What's the Meaning of it? Confound me if I ever could guess! Yet one dares hardly ever peep into a Preface, for fear of being stared in the Face with this nasty *Subject Matter*.' Campbell says: 'I think there is at present a greater risk of going too far in refining, than of not going far enough. The ears of some critics are immoderately delicate.'

Yet he himself has his own list of words to be banned, such as:

- The *workmanship of God*, for the work of God
- *A man of war*, for a ship of war
- *A merchantman*, for a trading vessel

He objected to some words as they have a pleonastic appearance. Such as: *unto, until, selfsame, foursquare, devoid, oftentimes, nowadays, downfall, furthermore, further, wherewith*. Individual objection to particular expressions was the prevailing attitude. Overall, it was a misguided effort and an interference with the natural course of linguistic history.

Lesson 29

HISTORY OF ENGLISH FROM 1650 TO 1800- PART IV**Topic – 141: Objections to Foreign Borrowings****Nature of the 18th Century Concerns**

There were fears and apprehension that English was being ruined by the intrusion of foreign words, especially French. Defoe observed ‘an Englishman has his mouth full of borrow’d phrases...he is always borrowing other men’s language.’ His *Review* (1708) states: I think ‘*using and introducing foreign terms of art or foreign words into speech while our language labours under no penury or scarcity of words is an intolerable grievance.*’

Shortly before, Dryden had expressed a similar feeling: ‘I cannot approve of their way of refining, who corrupt our English idiom by mixing it too much with French: that is a sophistication of language, not an improvement of it; a turning English into French, rather than a refining of English by French’. So, French had a strong position to influence English. French was at the height of its prestige. It was used at almost every court in Europe.

The knowledge of the language among the upper classes in England was quite general, equaled only by the ignorance of English on the part of the French. Traveling in France was a necessary part of education and the cultural relations of both the people were very close. Yet danger does not seem to have been acute. The number of French words admitted to the language in the period from 1650 to 1800 was not unusually large. The *Oxford English Dictionary* records a fair number that did not win permanent acceptance. Those, retained, are very useful words.

Examples: *Boulevard, canteen, cartoon, champagne, cohesion, patrol, publicity, routine, syndicate.*

Most of these are words that we could ill afford to lose.

Topic – 142: Expansion of the British Empire: Impact

During this period, the foundations were being laid for that wide extension of English in the world. The British Empire was not the result of a consciously planned and aggressively executed program. It was a product of circumstances and chance. England entered late in the race for colonial territory. End of the fifteenth century witnessed the voyages and these opened up the East and the West to European exploitation. Columbus arrived in the New World in 1492. Vasco de Gama reached India in 1498 by way of the Cape of Good Hope. Their achievements were due to Spanish and Portuguese enterprise. It was only when the wealth of America and India began pouring into Spanish and Portuguese coffers that the envy and ambition of other countries were aroused. The English settlements at Jamestown and Plymouth were the beginning of colonization in North America that soon gave to England the Atlantic seaboard. End of the sixteenth century and the revolt of the Netherlands brought the Dutch into active competition with the Portuguese in the trade with India. Inspired by the Dutch example, in 1600 the East India Company was founded to promote this trade, establishing settlements at Madras, Bombay, and Calcutta.

Borrowings

Mexican words: *chili, chocolate, tomato etc.*

From Cuba and the West Indies: *Barbecue, hammock, hurricane, maize, potato, tobacco etc.*

From Brazil and Other South American regions: *Poncho, Tapioca etc.*

From India: *Bangle, bungalow, cashmere, China, coolie, cot, curry, jungle, jute, loot, mandarin, nirvana, polo, punch, rajah, rupee, sepoy, thug, toddy, tom-tom, and verandah.*

- Kangaroo is an interesting example of native words that have passed into universal use.

Topic – 143: Progressive Verb Forms

It is impossible to follow the subject matter here in extensive details so only significant ones can be pointed out. One characteristic development in English grammar in the eighteenth century is regarding progressive verb forms.

- Where French Says: *je chante* or German *ich singe*
- English may say: *I sing, I do sing, or I am singing.*

Do-forms are emphatic forms. But their most important uses are in negative and interrogative sentences (I don't sing, do you sing?).

To be forms and the **present participle** are generally called progressive forms. Their most common use is to indicate an action as being in progress at the time implied by the auxiliary. The wide extension of the use of progressive forms is one of the most important developments of the English verb in the modern period.

In Old English, such expressions as '*he woes lærende*' (*he was teaching*) are occasionally found but usually in translations from Latin. In early Middle English, progressive forms are distinctly rare. Their number increases in the Middle English period and the credit of their development goes to the sixteenth century. The chief factor in their growth is the use of the participle as a noun governed by the preposition *on* (***he burst out on laughing***). This weakened to *he burst out a-laughing* and finally to *he burst out laughing*. In the same way *he was on laughing* became *he was a-laughing* and *he was laughing*. Today such forms are freely used in all tenses (***is laughing, was laughing, will be laughing***, etc.).

Topic – 144: Progressive Passive

The extension of such forms to the passive (*the house is being built*) was a later development. It belongs to the very end of the eighteenth century. Old English had no progressive passive. Such an expression as ***the man is loved, feared, hated*** is progressive only in so far as the verbs *loving, fearing, hating* imply a continuous state. But no such force attaches to ***The man is killed***, which does not mean the man is being killed, but indicates a completed act. The construction ***the man is on laughing*** was capable also of a passive significance under certain circumstances. Thus, ***the house is on building*** can

suggest only that the house is in process of construction. This use is found from the fourteenth century on, and in its weakened form the construction is not unknown today.

With some verbs the construction was impossible in a passive sense. Thus, the idea ***he is always being called*** could not be expressed by ***he is always calling***. At the end of the eighteenth century, we find the first traces of our modern expression ***The house is being built***. The combination of ***being*** with a past participle to form a participial phrase had been in use for some time. Shakespeare says: ***which, being kept close, might move more grief to hide*** (Hamlet). This is thought to have suggested the new verb phrase. The earliest instance of the construction that has been noted is from the year 1769. However, it is generally used only in the present and simple past tense (***is or was being built***). We can hardly say ***the house has been being built for two years***, and we avoid saying ***it will be being built next spring***.

The history of the new progressive passive shows that English is a living language. Moreover, its grammar is not fixed. It will continue to change in the future as it has changed already.

Topic – 145: Summary of Characteristics (1650-1800)

Supporters of rational science such, as Henry More, Thomas Sprat, John Wilkins, and Robert Boyle were disturbed by the ‘ranting’ language of the Enthusiasts. Learned discourse was no longer confined to elite circles; it was now being extensively published, in English. Language, it was urged, should be geared for rational, literally prosaic discourse. It was also recommended that the higher or ‘Liberal Arts’ should be brought in closer contact with the baser ‘Mechanick Arts.’ In this way, English prose could facilitate a national unity built around scientific honesty and social utility. The impact of the 17th century was that Royal Society served as coordinator and clearing house for English scientific endeavors.

The impact of the 18th Century was that the first half of the eighteenth century is commonly designated in histories of literature as the Augustan Age in England. In England, the age was characterized by a search for stability. One of the first characteristics to be mentioned is a strong sense of order and the value of regulation. Latin was looked upon as a model and classical precedent was often generalized. First time attention was turned to the grammar. In the eighteenth century, desire was to give the English language a polished, rational, and permanent form. People like Swift opposed the unchecked language change and creativity. From an English Academy, to objection to the Academy and its substitute, to the publication in 1755 of *A Dictionary of the English Language*, it was a very happening period in terms of language development.

Lesson 30

INTRODUCTION TO MODERN ENGLISH

Topic – 146: Influences on the English in the 19th and 20th Century

The events of the 19th & 20th centuries affecting the English-speaking countries have been of great political and social importance. But in their effect on the language, they have not been revolutionary. British success in the sea and the Napoleonic Wars culminating in Nelson's famous victory at Trafalgar (1805) gave England undisputed naval supremacy. The war against Russia in the Crimea (1854–1856) and the contests with princes in India turned English attention to the East. A **Democratic basis** was set for the first time which included the reorganization of parliament, the revision of the penal code, the poor laws, the restrictions placed on child labor, and other industrial reforms.

The result of all this was a decreased distance between the upper and the lower classes and an increase in the opportunities for the masses. The establishment of the first cheap newspaper (1816) and of cheap postage (1840) as well as the improved means of travel and communication had a strong effect. The effect was of uniting more closely the different parts of Britain and of spreading the influence of standard speech. World wars and the troubled periods following them affected the life of almost everyone and left their mark on the language as well. Growth in importance of some of England's larger colonies also had an impact; their eventual in-dependence and the development of the United States increased significance of English. There developments in the industry, increased public interest in sports and amusements, and improvements in the mode of living have all contributed to the vocabulary. The last two centuries offer an excellent opportunity to observe the relation between a civilization and the language which is an expression of it.

Topic – 147: The Impact of Science

The most striking thing about our present-day civilization is probably the part that science has played. Think of the progress in medicine and the sciences auxiliary to it, such as bacteriology, biochemistry etc.

NOW

Realize the difference that marks off our own day. Reflect upon the relatively short period that separates the Wright brothers, making history's first powered and controlled airplane flight, from the landings of astronauts on the moon. In every field of science, pure and applied, there has been need in the last two centuries for thousands of new terms. In medicine, we speak of *anemia*, *appendicitis*, *arteriosclerosis*, difficult as the word is, *of bronchitis*, *diphtheria*, and numerous other diseases and ailments. We use with some sense of their meaning, words like *bacteriology*, *immunology*, *orthodontics*, and the acronym *AIDS* (*acquired immune deficiency syndrome*). We have drugs like *aspirin*, *iodine*, *insulin*, *morphine*, and we acquire without effort the names of antibiotics, *such as penicillin*, *streptomycin*, and a whole family of *sulfa compounds*.

We speak of adenoids, endocrine glands, and hormones and know the uses of the stethoscope, the CAT scan (computerized axial tomography) etc. Words such as *cholesterol*, *polyunsaturated fats* have

come into use during the nineteenth and, in some cases, the twentieth century. In almost every other field of science, the same story could be told. In the field of electricity, words like *dynamo*, *alternating current*, *arc light* have been in the language since about 1870. Physics has made us familiar with terms like *calorie*, *electron*, *ionization*, *ultraviolet rays*, *quantum mechanics*, and *relativity*, though we don't always have an exact idea of what they mean.

The development of atomic energy and nuclear weapons has given us *radioactive*, *hydrogen bomb*, *chain reaction*, *fallout*, and *meltdown*. In recent years, we talk about black holes, the big bang model, and superstrings. In psychology, we need to notice *schizophrenia*, *extrovert* & *introvert*, *behaviorism*, *inhibition*, *defense mechanism*, *bonding*, and *psychoanalysis*.

Notice the Compounds

spacecraft, *space shuttle*, *launch pad*, *countdown*, *blast off*, *flyby*, *command module* etc.

Consciously or unconsciously, we have become scientifically minded in the last few generations and our vocabularies reflect this extension.

Topic – 148: The Impact of Media on Modern Language

Scientific discoveries and inventions do not always influence the language in proportion to their importance. Think of radio and motion pictures vs. telephone. Such additions to the vocabulary depend more upon the degree to which the discovery or invention enters into the life of the community. The same principle might be illustrated by film, radio, and television. *Cinema and moving picture (1899)*, **screen**, **reel**, **film**, **scenario**, **projector**, **close-up**, **fade-out** are now common, and although the popularity of 3-D as a cinematic effect was short lived, the word is still used. The word *radio in the sense of a receiving station* dates from about 1925, and we get the first hint of *television* as early as 1904.

Common Vocabulary of Broadcasting

- *broadcast* (itself), *aerial*, *antenna*, *lead-in*, *loudspeaker*, *stand by*, and *solid-state* etc.
- Words like **announcer**, **reception**, **microphone**, and **transmitter** have acquired special meanings.

Abbreviations

- FM (for *frequency modulation*)
- AM (for *amplitude modulation*)
- *Cable TV*, *teleprompter*, *videotape*, *VCR*, and *DVD*.

The first electronic digital computers (the era of World War II) a few terms have been in general use since then. There were new meanings of **program**, **language**, **memory**, and **hardware**. There was a widespread manufacturing of computers during the 1980s, and the impact. So, we have PC itself. We have *RAM* (*random-access memory*), *ROM* (*read-only memory*), *DOS* (*disk operating system*), *microprocessor*, *byte*, *cursor*, *modem*, *software*, *hacker*, *hard-wired*, *download* etc. There were also new meanings of *read*, *write*, *mouse*, *terminal*, *chip*, *network*, *workstation*, *windows*, and *virus*.

Topic – 149: The World Wars and Their Impact on English

We may observe some of the words that came into English between 1914 and 1918 as a direct consequence of World War I. Some of these were military terms representing new methods of warfare, such as *air raid*, *antiaircraft gun*, *tank*, and *blimp*. *Gas mask* and *liaison officer* were new combinations. *Camouflage* was borrowed from French. Where it had formerly been a term of the scene-painter's craft, but it caught the popular fancy.

Old Words, New Uses

- **Sector** (*Old*= a specific portion of the fighting line)
- **Barrage** (*originally an* artificial barrier like a dam in a river)

From Limited Circulation to General Use

- **Hand grenade** goes back to 1661
- Other expressions **dugout**, **machine gun**, **no man's land**
- World War II was less productive of memorable words, but of more memorable songs
- **Air raid related expressions:** alert (air-raid warning), blackout, blitz (German Blitzkrieg, literally 'lightning war'), blockbuster, dive-bombing, evacuate, air-raid shelter.
- **Verbs** — new verbs or old verbs with a new significance
- *To spearhead an attack*, *to mop up*, and *to appease*
- *Commando*, a word that goes back to the Boer War

So, overall the world wars contributed a lot in terms of vocabulary.

Topic – 150: English: A Reflection of Modern Times

Words are symbols by which people express their ideas; words obviously designate the things, a culture knows. Date of word means date of object, experience, observation, or whatever it is. Early nineteenth century *horsepower* meant some form of mechanical power that needs to be measured in familiar terms. The appearance in the language of words like *railway*, *locomotive*, *turntable* about 1835 tells us that steam railways were then coming in. In 1839, the words *photograph* and *photography* first appear, and then we have many more. Such as:

- *Camera*, *film*, *enlargement*, *emulsion*, *focus*, *shutter*, *light meter* etc.
- *Concrete in the sense of* a mixture of crushed stone and cement dates from 1834.
- But *reinforced concrete* is an expression called forth only in the twentieth century.

In the last quarter of the 19th century, an interesting story of progress is told by: *typewriter*, *telephone*, *apartment house*, *drop-forging*, *motorcycle*, *feminist*, *fundamentalist*, about 1910 *postimpressionist* in art, and the *Freudian* in psychology. *Intelligentsia* is considered as a designation for the class to which superior culture is attributed. This process of addition of new words will always continue.

Lesson 31

STANDARDIZATION OF ENGLISH IN THE 19TH AND 20TH CENTURY**Topic – 151: New Words in Modern English**

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

- Immense increase in vocabulary items
- To form this vocabulary, scientists drew on various sources

Strategies/ Techniques/ Ways Used to Create this Vocabulary

Already a word that existed was now given a scientific meaning; for example, chemists have done so with *salt*, botanists with *fruit and pollen* and zoologists with *parasite*. To take over words from another language is another way of doing it. So, from Latin we have: *bacillus*, *corolla*, *sphagnum* and *tibia*; and from Greek: *acne*, *eczema*. From German, we have taken these words, especially in the fields of chemistry and mineralogy- *cobalt*, *paraffin* and *quartz*. From the names of modern European scientists, we have: scientific units = *coulomb* (French), *gauss* and *ohm* (German), *angstrom* (Swedish) and *volt* (Italian).

An extremely common way is to invent them using Greek and Latin material. From Greek=***anode*, *cathode*, *electrolysis* and *electron***. From Latin elements are formed words, such as *accumulator*, *habitat*, *hibernate*, *invertebrate*, and *transliterate*. Greek elements have come via Modern Latin. Many scientific words contain both Greek and Latin morphemes: *biosphere*, *haemoglobin*, and *microspecies*. Shortened words usually start off as colloquial. For example, *mob*. Sometimes, the end of a word is cut off like *cabriolet* = *cab photograph*= *photo*. Sometimes, successive phases of shortening take place such as *public house* = *public*= *pub* OR *taximeter cab* = *taxi-cab*= *taxi*

The examples of the formation of words by cutting off the beginning of the words are when *acute*, *caravan*, and *omnibus* became *cute*, *van*, and *bus*.

When we cut off the ending of words, we get words like *ad*, (*advertisement*), *exam* (*examination*), and *gym* (*gymnasium*).

Blending

Towards the end of the late modern period = *brunch* (*breakfast and lunch*), such blends are sometimes called ‘portmanteau words,’ a term taken from Lewis Carroll.

- *Slithy* (*lithe and slimy*)
- *Mimsy* (*miserable and flimsy*)
- Overall there was a huge increase in the fund of words during this period.

Topic – 152: Standardization of Spelling & Changes in Pronunciation

There are a few differences between Addison's punctuation and what would be considered correct today. For example, the use of capital letters and the apostrophe in the plural *Opera's*. So, the so-called greengrocer's apostrophe in plurals such as *potato's and tomato's* is a recent innovation - consequence of declining educational standards. Addison can be taken as an example of good style in the 18th century. His spelling is almost identical with ours. There are minor differences like *carry'd and publick, but essentially the system of orthography* is the one we use now. In Middle English and Early Modern English, there had been no standard spelling. However, it is varied from writer to writer and even within the work of one writer. Even proper names were not fixed, for example Shakespeare, in the three signatures uses two different spellings (*Shakspeare* and *Shakspeare*). Other variants: *Shagspere, Shackespere* and *Shakespere*.

A powerful force for standardization is the introduction of printing. By the middle of the 16th century, there was still no standard system but quite a number of widely accepted conventions. By the end of the early modern period, the spelling had become standardized in printed books' though there is variation in people's private writings.

Pronunciation

One result of these inconsistencies is the prevalence of **spelling pronunciations** that have happened with universal education plus the wide dissemination of new words from books in printed form and this results in never heard/pronounced words in the home environment.

Schedule began with /s-/, and was commonly spelt *sedule* or *cedul*; the spelling with *sch* dates from the mid-seventeenth century and has led to the present- pronunciations, /ʃ-/ and /sk-/.

Late Modern Period

Perhaps the most important change has been the disappearance of /r/ before consonants and before a pause. Formerly, the /r/ was always pronounced in words like *barn* and *person* and *father*. Today, in England, /r/ is never pronounced in words like *barn* and *person* but it is pronounced in words like *father* only if it occurs before a vowel ('*father* and *mother*').

Topic – 153: Slang in the 19th and 20th Centuries

Slang is a peculiar kind of vagabond language. We find it always hanging on the outskirts of legitimate speech but it is continually forcing its way into the most respectable community. It is a part of language and cannot be ignored. Nineteenth century is significant for the growth of a more objective and scientific attitude towards slang. The word slang does not occur in Johnson's Dictionary. In its early use, it always has a derogatory force. Webster in 1828 defines it as 'low, vulgar, unmeaning language.'

Definition in the Oxford Dictionary, 1911

'Language of a highly colloquial type, below the level of standard educated speech, and consisting either of new words, or of current words employed in some special sense.' From being 'unmeaning language' to 'special sense.' What is slang today may have been in good use yesterday and may be accepted in the standard speech of tomorrow.

The expression **what on earth** = idiomatic intensive to us. But De Quincy condemned it as slang and expressed horror on hearing it used by a government official. The word **row** in the sense of a **disturbance** was slang in the eighteenth century and was described by Todd (1818) as ‘a very low expression.’ *Boom, slump, crank, and fad, were slang once.* Slang results from an instinctive desire for freshness and novelty of expression.

Nerd, geek, dweeb, dork, bimbo, and scumbag undoubtedly owe their popularity to some merit that no other word conveys the meaning.

It is sometimes difficult to define the precise quality that makes an expression slang. It is often not in the word itself but in the sense in which it is used. Put down is proper enough if we speak of soldiers who put down a rebellion, but it is slang when we speak of a remark that put someone down or refer to the remark as a put-down. The role slang plays today is greater than it has been at certain times in the past.

Topic – 154: Issues of Register and Accent

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

RP and Regional Accents

A non-regional accent based on the speech of the great public schools has been accepted as a standard in England for well over a century. Increasingly, however, RP has lost some of its prestige as people educated at public schools have lost their monopoly of power and education. Today, the majority of university students are not speakers of RP. And it is from them that a large part of the English professional classes are recruited. Most school teachers, too, do not use RP but an educated regional accent, so that the influence of the schools is toward this rather than toward RP. RP now is the accent usually taught to foreigners learning British English. Rise in the prestige of all national and regional accents in Britain has taken place. Very respected broadcasters on the BBC now have educated Welsh and Scottish accents. Still, there is considerable prejudice against ‘broad’ regional accents but what are popularly known as ‘soft’ accents are now in many contexts more acceptable than the RP.

Topic – 155: British and Irish English

Ireland is the second largest island of the British Isles, the third largest in Europe, and the twentieth largest on earth. Politically, Ireland is divided between the Republic of Ireland, which covers five-sixths of the island, and Northern Ireland, which is part of the United Kingdom in the northeast of the island.

History

The earliest evidence of human presence in Ireland is dated at 10,500 BC. Gaelic Ireland had emerged by the 1st century CE. The island was Christianized from the 5th century onward. Following the Norman invasion in the 12th century, England claimed sovereignty over Ireland. English rule did not extend over the whole island until the 16th–17th century, the colonization, and British settlement. A war of independence in the early 20th century = followed by the partition of the island = creating the Irish Free State + Northern Ireland remained a part of the UK. Irish English has its origin in 1169. Texts are

first found from around 1250 but in Ireland there was competition between three languages – English, French, and Irish. Loss of French appears to have enhanced the status of Irish, rather than of English, at least until the seventeenth century. Many of the present-day features of Irish English appear in the Wexford dialects. In early Modern Irish, therefore, the use of **after** as a perfective mark, as in the example: *I'm after missing the bus (I have missed the bus)* is extensive. Irish dialects are typically more conservative than those on the mainland. As far as syntax is concerned, Irish dialects make rather more use of *do-periphrasis than elsewhere*. Example: *They does be lonesome by night, the priest does, surely* (Filppula, 1999).

Pronunciation

Irish dialect stories make use of spellings: *tay (tea)*, *desaive (deceive)*, *foine (fine)*, *projuce (produce)*, *fisht (fist)*, *butther (butter)*, *thruue (true)*, and the like. The influence of the Irish prepositional system upon Hiberno-English = the use of **with** instead of **for** meaning 'for the duration of': *He's dead now with many a year; He didn't come back with twenty-eight years*. So, Irish English has its distinct feature.

Lesson 32

19TH AND 20TH CENTURY ENGLISH: TENDENCIES**Topic – 156: English Worldwide**

Today English is not the language of the British only. It has a world-wide currency. In the various parts of the former British Empire, as in the United States, the English language has developed differences that distinguish it from the language of England. In Australia, Africa, South Asia, and Canada, there are different peculiarities of pronunciation and vocabulary. There are varieties from the dialect of the mother country and from one another. Peculiarities of communities are separated by time and space. In some countries, the most striking changes are the result of imperfect learning. Differences of nature and material civilization and generally contact with some foreign tongue are clearly reflected in the vocabulary. Loss of French appears to have enhanced the status of Irish, rather than of English, at least until the seventeenth century.

Topic – 157: Pidgins and Creoles

There are numerous pidgins and creoles in the world today. Their number is over two hundred. They are based on many different languages including Swahili, Arabic, Malay, and Japanese.

Definition

A pidgin is an auxiliary language used in the first place for the purposes of trade between groups that have no common language. It arises when two or more languages are in contact. It is a simplified form of the dominant one, with influence from the other(s). This restricted type can eventually be capable of fulfilling all language functions. It may even become an official language: Papua New Guinea's pidgin, called Tok Pisin, is formally acknowledged in the country's constitution. Some pidgins die out because the need dies out; others spread and gain wide currency. Today, many English-based pidgins are in use, especially in the coastal regions of West Africa and on the islands of the Caribbean and the Pacific.

Creole

When a pidgin becomes the first language of a group=*creole*. *There are English-based creoles in the Caribbean, for example, in Barbados and Jamaica. Even in the United States, the creole called Gullah is spoken by about a quarter of a million people living along the south-eastern coastal areas. Pidgins and creoles co-exist with standard varieties of the donor language. In Jamaica, for example, an English-based creole exists alongside Standard English. Approximately, there are more than nine million people speak pidgin and creole languages throughout the world and about thirty to forty percent are English based. The single word hum in English is expressed in Tok Pisin (literally 'talk pidgin') by the circumlocution, singsing long taim maus i pas ('to sing when the mouth is closed'). English 'grass' in Tok Pisin is gras; Moustache' is mausgras; Beard' is gras bilong fes ('grass on face'); Hair' is gras bilong hed; Eyebrow' is gras antap longai ('grass on top along eye'). In the same way 'my mother' is mama bilong mi; 'John's house' is haus bilong John.*

The distinction between pidgins and creoles is not a sharp one, for sometimes a variety is used by some groups as an auxiliary language and by others as a first language. This is particularly true in West

Africa where the co-existence of more than four hundred different languages means that pidgins are especially useful. A pidgin tends to preserve the absolutely minimal grammatical structures needed for effective communication and reduces redundancy to almost nil. The great simplification of pidgin-creole structures as compared with the donor language is seen in both phonology and grammar. Number of phonemes is reduced in a creole, so in Jamaican Creole, many speakers use the same vowel in *block* as in *black* (both [blak]), the same vowel in *beer* as in *bare* (both [bier]).

Topic – 158: The Oxford English Dictionary

In 1850, the inadequacy of existing dictionaries was felt. Those of Johnson and Richardson were incomplete and below the standards. In 1857, at a meeting of the Philological Society in London, a committee was appointed to collect words, not in the dictionaries, with a view to publishing a supplement to them. The committee consisted of Herbert Coleridge, Dean Trench, and F.J.Furnivall - three members. The most important outcome of the committee's activity was a paper read to the Society by Dean Trench, 'On Some Deficiencies in Our English Dictionaries.' A formal 'Proposal for the Publication of a New English Dictionary by the Philological Society' was issued the following year.

Two Principal Aims of the Project

- To record every word that could be found in English from about the year 1000
- To exhibit the history of each— its forms, spellings, uses and meanings.
- People volunteered
- The number of contributors increased

Before the last part of the dictionary was published, six million slips with quotations had been gathered. There were various changes in people and roles. Its original name was *A New English Dictionary on Historical Principles (NED)*. In 1895, the title *The Oxford English Dictionary (OED)* was added. The completed work was of ten large volumes occupying 15,487 pages. It treated 240,165 main words. Later on in 1933, a supplementary volume was published.

Topic – 159: Grammatical Tendencies- Verb-Adverb Combinations

Several factors affected these tendencies such as the printing press, popular education, improvements in travel and communication, and social consciousness. Very few changes in grammatical forms and conventions are to be observed. There has been some school-mastering of the language. The substitution of *you were* for *you was* in the singular occurs about 1820, and *it is I* is now seldom heard. *What was left of the subjunctive* mood in occasional use has disappeared except in conditions contrary to fact (*if I were you*). There is some tendency toward loss of inflection, although we have but little to lose, and it is noticeable in informal speech. The nonstandard *he don't* represents an attempt to eliminate the ending of the third person singular and reduces this verb in negative to a uniform *do* in the present tense. Likewise, the widespread practice of disregarding the objective case form *whom* in the interrogative (*Who do you want?*) illustrates the same impulse.

Though some people are shocked by the latter 'error,' it has a long and honorable history. Shakespeare often commits it, and historically the reduction of case forms in this pronoun is as justifiable

as that in the second person (*you for ye.*) Occasionally, a new grammatical convention may be seen springing up. The **get** passive (**he got hurt**) is largely a nineteenth-century development. '**He is hurt**' was too static, '**he became hurt**' too formal.

Verb-adverb Combinations

One other tendency that is sufficiently important to be noticed is the extension of verb-adverb combinations. Modern vocabulary has a large number of expressions like *set out*, *gathers up*, *put off*, *brings in*, made up of a common verb, often of one syllable, combined with an adverb. They suggest comparison with verbs having separable prefixes in German, and to a smaller extent with English verbs like *withstand* and *overcome*. Such combinations before the modern period = meaning is the fairly literal sense of the verb and the adverb in the combination (*climb up*, *fall down*).

- *Mere intensification*
- One of the most interesting features of such combinations in modern times, however, is the large number of figurative and idiomatic senses in which they have come to be used.

Examples

Bring about (cause or accomplish), *catch on* (comprehend), *give out* (become exhausted), *keep on* (continue), *put up with* (tolerate), *hold up* (rob), *lay off* (cease to employ), *turn over* (surrender). Another is the extensive use, especially in colloquial speech, of these verb-adverb combinations as nouns: *blowout*, *cave-in*, *holdup*, and *runaway*. The single adverb *up* enters into such combinations as *bring up*, *brace up*, *cough up*, *dig up*, *dish up*, *drum up*, *fly up*, *gum up*, *jack up*, *loosen up*, *pass up*, *perk up*, *scrape up*, *shut up*, *spruce up*, and *whack up*. Twenty verbs *back*, *blow*, *break*, *bring*, *call*, *come*, *fall*, *get*, *give*, *go*, *hold*, *lay*, *let*, *make*, *put*, *run*, *set*, *take*, *turn*, and *work* = **155 combinations with more than 600** distinct meanings or uses.

Topic – 160: Summary of Characteristics of the 19th and 20th Century English

The 19th and 20th centuries show a more enlightened and modern attitude toward linguistic questions. Immediate Past: Role of well-meaning but misguided persons who hoped to make over the language in accordance with their individual conceived pattern. 19th and 20th centuries = tolerant of colloquial and regional forms.

More changes in vocabulary occurred due to:

- Influence of science
- Influence of media
- Influence of technology
- Less changes in grammar
- More stability

Overall

- Worldwide spread
- Knowledge must be coupled with tolerance and especially tolerance toward usage.

Lesson 33

EXPANSION OF THE GENERAL VOCABULARY IN TODAY'S ENGLISH**Topic – 161: Reasons of Expansion of Vocabulary Today**

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

The expansion of the vocabulary seems to be going on at a great rate in our time. Many new words continue to be coined from Greek and Latin morphemes. Some get into the general vocabulary. Especially in medicine, there is an ongoing tendency to use Latin and/or Greek elements. The question is, how does this vocabulary expand; and what are the reasons of expansion?

Answering the how part, we need to consider the following:

- Coined
- Not all coined
- Borrowed
- Root borrowed
- New meaning given
- Blended
- Chopped off

Answering the why part we need to consider the following:

- Changing times
- Need of the times
- Inventions
- Technology
- Science
- Traveling
- Communication
- Media

Topic – 162: Expansion of Vocabulary: Loan Words

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

- The expansion of the vocabulary seems to be going on at a great rate in our time
- Main source of expansion: Borrowing
- Mainly loan words from LATIN
- In the early modern period, a number of words were borrowed from other languages too

The next largest source after Latin has been French. The French loans include military words (such as *bayonet*) and words from the life-sciences (such as *anatomy*, *muscle*). Many French words were taken from the general vocabulary (for example, *docility*, *entrance*, and *invite*). *There were a few words from Classical Greek*, though most of these came via Latin or French. They tended to be learned words, and many of them are technical terms of literary criticism, rhetoric, and theology. Words which were probably borrowed directly from Greek include *anathema*, *cosmos*, *larynx*, and *pathos*. Overall, loan words have always been a great source of expansion of vocabulary.

Topic – 163: Expansion of Vocabulary: Affixation

Large numbers of loanwords entered the language in the early modern period and the modern period. Words nevertheless continued to be coined from existing English language-material by traditional methods of word-formation, especially affixation, compounding, and conversion.

Focus: only affixations

By far, the commonest method of word-formation has been affixation, that is, the coining of new words by the use of prefixes and suffixes. Most of the words thus formed are nouns or adjectives, though there are also some adverbs and a few verbs. The ability to add affixes makes English extremely flexible.

- We can have prefixes (e.g., *com-*, *con-*, *de-*, *ex-*, *inter-*, *pre-*, *pro-*, *re-*, *sub-*, *un-*, etc)
- And suffixes (e.g., *-al*, *-ence*, *-er*, *-ment*, *-ness*, *-ship*, *-tion*, *-ate*, *-ed*, *-ize*, *-able*, *-ful*, *-ous*, *-ive*, *-ly*, *-y*, etc)

Affixation is a simple way to completely alter or subtly revise the meanings of existing words, to create other parts of speech out of words, or to create completely new words from new roots.

- Very few rules are present in the addition of affixes in English
- Anglo-Saxon affixes can be attached to Latin or Greek roots, or vice versa.

Example: Incomprehensibility which has the following features:

Simple root *-hen-* (from Indo-European root word *ghend-* meaning to grasp or seize).

Affixes: *in-* (not), *com-* (with), *pre-* (before), *-ible* (capable), *-ity* (being)

The sheer variety and number of possible affixes in English can lead to some confusion. There is no single standard method for something as basic as making a noun into an adjective (-able, -al, -ous and -y are just some of the possibilities). Some affix additions are surprisingly recent. For example, *Officialdom* and *boredom* are products of the 20th century. And *apolitical* as the negation of *political* did not appear until 1952. Adding affixes remain the simplest and perhaps the commonest method of creating new words.

Topic – 164: Expansion of Vocabulary: Compounding

A considerable number of words are formed by compounding, that is, the combination of two or more free morphemes. Like many languages, English allows the formation of compound words by compounding together shorter words (e.g., airport, seashore, fireplace, footwear, wristwatch, landmark, flowerpot, etc.). However, it is not taken to the extremes of German or Dutch where extremely long and unwieldy word chains are commonplace. They are nearly all nouns, and the commonest type is Noun + Noun (sheep-brand, waterdock). There are also a fair number of the type Adjective + Noun (Frenchwoman, freshman), and of the type Verb + Object (scrape-penny ‘miser’). English may even allow for different meanings depending on the order of combination.

For example: Houseboat/boathouse; Basketwork/ workbasket; Casebook/bookcase.

Compounding has led to blending as well:

- Motel, which blends motor and hotel
- Smog, which blends smoke and fog
- Chocoholic, which blends chocolate and alcoholic

Earworm

A song or tune, that once you’ve heard, is stuck in your head.

Use: ‘That new Taylor Swift song is such an earworm!’

Staycation

Spending your holiday in your hometown rather than travelling abroad.

Use: ‘I’m having a staycation this summer, as I’m trying to save money.’

Webisode

An episode or series created exclusively for online viewing.

Use: ‘There’s a new Breaking Bad webisode online, have you seen it?’

Crowdfunding

It is used for funding a project or business venture by asking a large number of people (typically online) to invest a small amount of money – usually via websites such as Kickstarter and Indiegogo.

Handover

Typically, this word has a more political significance, in terms of gaining land or ownership. However, its modern usage is commonly in the workplace. The act of passing over control or responsibility relates to another person while you are off work on holiday or leaving a job.

Use: 'I'll send my notes in a handover email so you can continue the project while I'm away.'

Binge-watch

The word is used for watching multiple episodes of a TV show, one after another, in a single sitting.

Use: 'I'm planning to binge-watch the entire series of Game of Thrones this weekend!'

Topic – 165: Expansion of Vocabulary: Conversion

Apart from affixation and compounding, the third reasonably common type of word-formation is conversion, the process by which one word is derived from another with no change of form. This is called the act of changing from one use or function or purpose to another. A conversion may be defined as a process by which a word belonging to one word class is transferred to another word class without any concomitant change of form either in pronunciation or spelling.

- A highly prolific form
- No restriction
- A lot of freedom

So, it regularly happens and some scholars call it a syntactic usage rather than word formation. Pyles and Algeo (1993) call it functional shift.

Major Types

- Noun to verb
- Verb to noun
- Adjective to noun
- Adjective to verb

Noun to Verb

- To bottle
- To network
- To commission

Noun to Verb

It refers to the formation of verbs from nouns (to bayonet, to gossip, to invoice).

Verb to Noun

- A call
- A command
- A guess
- A spy

Adjective to Verb

- To dirty
- To empty
- To wrong

Adjective to Noun (Rare)

- The poor
- The rich
- A daily

Adjective to Noun

There are other examples of the formation of nouns from adjectives (an ancient, a brisk). The words formed by affixation, compounding, and conversion are often ordinary everyday words or words to do with practical affairs. By contrast, as we have seen, Latin loanwords tend to be more formal and literary and often the concern of specialized fields of discourse like science, medicine, religion, classical culture, and the liberal arts.

Lesson 34

ENGLISH AS WORLD LANGUAGE**Topic – 166: Status of English in Today's World**

Today, when English is one of the major world languages, it requires an effort of imagination to realize that this is a relatively recent thing.

How?

Think of Shakespeare: He wrote for whom? May be, he wrote for a speech community of only a few millions. He wrote for a community whose language was not much valued elsewhere in Europe. He wrote in a language that was unknown to the rest of the world. Shakespeare's language was pretty-well confined to England and southern Scotland. It had not yet penetrated into Ireland or even Wales, let alone into the world beyond. In the first place, the great expansion in the number of English speakers was due to the growth of population in England itself. Worldwide expansion of English now makes it one of the most widely spoken languages in the world. Estimates of the numbers of speakers vary. Most modest agree that there are over 400 million speakers who use it as a native language. And many more use it as a second or foreign language. The method of its spread, however, also means that there are now many varieties of English, and that it is used for many different purposes in varying social contexts. In North America, Australia, and New Zealand, there was dense settlement by English-language speakers. They outnumbered the original inhabitants:

- Native Americans
- Australian Aboriginals
- Maoris

They also dominated them politically and economically. The native languages, consequently, had hardly any influence on the language of the settlers. In Australia, New Zealand, and South Africa, there is little regional variation in the language. South Africa is a community of those who speak English as a first language comparatively on a small scale. According to the 2001 census, English was recorded as the language most often spoken at home for 8.2% of the population. However, this does not account for the many South Africans of various ethnic backgrounds and ancestries who will speak English as a second language.

Topic – 167: Number of Speakers of English Today

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

- How do we measure the popularity and importance of a language?

Speakers of English As:

- First

- Second
- and
- Foreign language

First Language

Those who have learned it as a second language are also difficult to estimate. We must take into account the levels of fluency achieved. If we take a basic level of conversational ability as the criterion, with little command of specialized vocabulary, the figure is also some 400 million. So, many people now use English as a second language. The population growth in areas where English is a second language is about three times more than in areas where it is used as first language.

Number of Speakers of English Today

Second-language speakers of English will soon hugely exceed first-language speakers – a situation without precedent for an international language.

Topic – 168: English as a Mother Tongue

A language does not achieve a genuine global status until it develops a special role that is recognized in every country. This role is most obvious in countries where it is spoken as a first language.

English as First Language

English is spoken as first language in USA, Canada, Britain, Ireland, Australia, New Zealand, South Africa, several Caribbean countries, and a scattering of other territories. Today, English is the second or third most popular mother tongue in the world with an estimated 350-400 million native speakers. Best recent estimates of first languages suggest that Mandarin Chinese has around 800-850 million native speakers, while English and Spanish both have about 330-350 million each. Hindi speakers number 180-200 million, Bengali 170-180 million, Arabic 150-220 million, Portuguese 150-180 million, Russian 140-160 million and Japanese roughly 120 million. However, no language has ever been spoken by more than a dozen or so countries as a mother tongue. So, mother-tongue use by itself cannot give a language global status.

Then How?

It has to be taken up by other countries around the world.

Three-pronged Development

- Of first-language
- Second-language
- Foreign-language

Thus, it is inevitable that a language eventually comes to be used by more people than any other language. English has now reached this stage. Its first language speakers are above 400 million though estimates vary greatly because only a few countries keep statistics about numbers of speakers. Those who have learned it as a second language are also difficult to estimate, though approximately there are around 400 million such speakers. When the number of people who speak English as a foreign language is taken into account, again estimates are uncertain. No-one knows how many people are learning English in China. But the British Council has estimated that roughly a billion people are learning English around the world at any one time. Excluding complete beginners, it would seem reasonable to take two-thirds of these as a guess with whom it would be possible to hold a reasonable conversation in English – say 600 million. The grand total was about 1,400 million. In round terms = a quarter of the world's population (just over 6,000 million in 2000). No other language is used so extensively – either numerically or with such geographical reach. So, the current status of English is determined by its role other than as mother tongue.

Topic – 169: English as a Lingua Franca

Lingua Franca is a language that is adopted as a common language between speakers whose native languages are different. In the past = Arabic=Islamic world= from AD 733-AD 1792= spread from the borders of China and Northern India through Central Asia, Persia, Asia Minor, and Middle East to North Africa. The term lingua franca = first coined = beginning of the 17th century by the Italians. Conglomeration of mostly Italian, with a smattering of French, Portuguese, Spanish, Turkish, Greek, and Arabic was used primarily as the language of commerce. The term literally means 'Frankish language,' as 'Frank' was a common designation for all western Europeans since approximately the 12th century. Today an obvious factor= the need for a common language or lingua franca an old concept.

But for whole world = emerged strongly only in the twentieth century, and since the 1950s in particular. The chief international forum for political communication – the United Nations – dates only from 1945, and then it had only fifty-one member states. By 1960, this had risen to over eighty members. The increase continued steadily into the 1990s. In 2003, there were 191 members in the UN – nearly four times as many as there were fifty years ago. The need for lingua francas is obvious, and pressure to find a single lingua franca is a consequence.

The alternative = multi-way translation facilities= expensive= impracticable.

Where is it Used?

It is serving as a useful heuristic in Europe, where a Spaniard, a Frenchman, and a German might all carry on a conversation in English. English as a lingua franca (ELF) plays an important role in former Anglophone colonies such as India, Pakistan, Nigeria, Uganda, and Zimbabwe, among many others.

How is it Used?

- ELF differs from Standard English in a number of ways.
- Several documented overarching similarities and variances.

How is it Used?

- Variances in article usage (or no article usage at all)
- Variances in preposition usage
- Novel use of morphemes (such as importancy and smoothfully)

Criticism

While ELF is a widespread and useful mode of communication for many, some scholars and linguists have criticized its proliferation as a form of linguistic imperialism. Speakers of ELF may eventually speak both their native language and English imperfectly leading to issues with effective communication. In spite of these criticisms, ELF continues to flourish in many countries, oftentimes enriching the language with colorful aphorisms and unique phrases.

Topic – 170: Divergent Development in Modern English

The development of so many varieties of English has produced problems and controversies about the language. Controversies= especially in former British colonies which became independent in the second half of the twentieth century. With independence= disputes= whether English should be retained as an official language or not. If yes= whether to teach Standard British English or local variety of English as a standard.

Various factors have played a part in these arguments = nationalist feeling attachment to traditional culture.

- Desire for advances in science and technology
- The conflicting needs for local and for international communication.
- In fact, there are many cross-currents. During British colonial rule, Standard British English was the language of administration, and local departures from it were stigmatized as errors.

In India, after independence= Hindi-speaking north in favor of making Hindi official language= was opposed by the south who spoke Dravidian languages= obvious economic and political advantages to northerners. In some former colonies, a mastery of English= privilege of a dominant elite who supported its retention. More radical and democratic forces= replacement by one or more local languages. Many of the controversies, inevitably, have been fought out in the field of educational policy. They still go on, but there seems, at the moment, to be a trend in many countries towards continuing to accept English as an official or semi-official language. Given the numerous varieties of English in the world today, it is obviously impossible to do more than give a few examples of the differences between them under Phonology, Grammar, and Vocabulary.

Phonology

Different varieties of English can differ phonologically in three main ways. First, their phonological systems can differ: for example, the inventory of phonemes may be different. Secondly, the realizations of the same phoneme can be different, that is, be pronounced differently. Thirdly, the

distribution of phonemes can differ; different phonemes may be selected for the pronunciation of a given word. Also, there can be differences of stress and intonation.

Phonology: Outer-circle Varieties of English

Outer-circle varieties of English often differ considerably in phonological system from RP and General American. The number of phonemes is often much reduced. In many varieties of English in the outer circle, there is no difference between long and short vowels.

Example

In one common form of Nigerian English, for example, there is only one phoneme corresponding to RP /ɪ/ and /i:/, so that *bid* and *bead* are both /bɪd/; only one corresponding to /a/ and /ɑ:/, so that *hat* and *heart* are both /hæt/; only one corresponding to /ɒ/, /ʌ/ and /ɔ:/, so that *stock*, *stuck* and *stork* are all /stɒk/; and only one corresponding to RP /ʊ/ and /u:/, so that *look* and *Luke* are both /luk/.

Grammar

There are only minor grammatical differences between the main standard forms of English.

Example

American English differs from British English, but the differences are minor. Among past tenses of verbs, some American English has the forms *dove*, *fit*, and *snuck* (British *dived*, *fitted*, *sneaked*) and in a number of forms uses /-d/ where British English has /-t/ (for example, *burned*, *learned*, *spelled*, *spilled*), though the forms with /-d/ are increasingly found in British English.

In some verbs of this latter type, British English changes the stem vowel from /i:/ to /e/ in the past tense, whereas in American English it remains /i/ (such as *dreamed*, *kneeled*, *leaped*). An American often uses *do have* where a Briton is more likely to use *have got* ('Do you have the time?', 'Have you got the time?').

Vocabulary

It is perhaps in vocabulary that we see the greatest divergences between the different varieties of English as a first language. However, it is expanding across the vast North American continent with new flora and fauna and different natural features from those of Europe, building up a new society, building up new vocabulary.

Lesson 35**INTRODUCTION TO AMERICAN ENGLISH****Topic – 171: English in America & its Features****Objective**

After completing this topic, students will have an introduction to American English. American English, sometimes called United States English or U.S. English, or AME, AE, AmEng, USEng, en-US is the set of varieties of the English language native to the United States. English is the most widely spoken language in the United States.

- The common language used by the federal government.
- Considered the de facto language of the country.

It has been given official status by 32 of the 50 state governments. The use of English in the United States is a result of British colonization of the Americas. The first wave of English-speaking settlers arrived in North America during the 17th century, followed by further migrations in the 18th and 19th centuries. Since then, American English has developed into new dialects, in some cases under the influence of West African and Native American languages, German, Dutch, Irish, Spanish, and other languages of immigrants. Any American or even Canadian English accent perceived as free of noticeably local, ethnic, or cultural markers is popularly called ‘General American English.’ Sociolinguist William Labov describes it as ‘a fairly uniform broadcast standard in the mass media.’ Otherwise, however, historical and present linguistic evidence does not support the notion of there being a mainstream Standard English of the United States.

According to Labov, with the major exception of Southern American English, regional accents throughout the country are not yielding to this broadcast standard. On the contrary, the sound of American English continues to evolve, with some local accents disappearing, but several larger regional accents emerging. Compared with English as spoken in England, North American English is more homogeneous. Also, it has remained relatively more conservative. North America has given the English lexicon many thousands of words, meanings, and phrases. Several thousand are now used in English as spoken internationally.

The process of coining new lexical items started as soon as the colonists began borrowing names for unfamiliar flora, fauna, and topography from the Native American languages.

19th Century Onward

Industrial and material innovations in the 19th and 20th centuries were the source of a massive stock of distinctive new words, phrases, and idioms in AM English.

Examples

The vocabulary of railroading is ranging from names of roads (from dirt roads and back roads to freeways and parkways) to road infrastructure (parking lot, overpass, and rest area).

Topic – 172: American Dialects: Linguistic Variety and Uniformity in America

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

The Size of America

It is a federal republic composed of 50 states, a federal district, five major self-governing territories, and various possessions.

Unity in Diversity: Diversity in Unity

- A standard language
- A variety of dialects

Cultural and Ethnic American Eng. Varieties

- African American Vernacular (Ebonics)
- Cajun Vernacular
- Hawaiian Pidgin
- Latino Vernacular Englishes

Cultural and Ethnic American Eng. Varieties

- Chicano English
- Miami English
- Pennsylvania Dutch English
- Yeshiva English

Regional and Local

- Eastern New England
- Boston
- Rhode island
- Southeast Super region
- Mid Atlantic
- Baltimore
- Philadelphia
- Midland

- Hoi Toider
- New Orleans
- Southern
- New York City Northern
- Inland Northern
- Western Pennsylvania

Topic – 173: American English Pronunciation

General American English or Standard American English accent is typically found in the middle states and in the west. Studies on historical usage of English in both the United States and the United Kingdom suggest that spoken American English did not simply deviate away from British English but retained certain now-archaic features contemporary British English has since lost. General American English or Standard American English accent is typically found in the middle states and in the west.

Rhoticity (or r-fulness):

General American accents are firmly rhotic, pronouncing the r sound in all environments, including after vowels, such as in pearl, car, and court.

/r/ in GA and RP

In GA, the letter r is pronounced in all positions, but in RP it is only pronounced before vowels (e.g., very, paragraph).

Wine- Whine Merger

The consonants spelled w and wh are usually pronounced the same; a separate phoneme /ʍ/ (wh) is present only in certain dialects. In RP, the vowels in pairs like cot/caught are distinct: [ɒ] and [ɔ:] respectively. However, in GA these vowels have merged in various ways. For example, in a south-western American speech [a] is used in both cot and caught. Overall, there are considerable distinct features of GA pronunciation.

Topic – 174: American English Grammar

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

Grammar

AE vs. BrE

There are a few grammatical differences between the two varieties of English. The number is less compared to vocabulary and pronunciation.

Collective Nouns

- Refer to a group of individuals.
- In AE, collective nouns are singular.

Example: Staff = a group of employee, Band = a group of musicians, Team = a group of athletes.

Examples- AE/ BrE

Americans would say, 'The band is good.' In British English: 'The team are playing tonight.' or 'The team is playing tonight.'

Auxiliary Verbs

Verbs that help form a grammatical function. They 'help' the main verb by adding information about time, **modality**, and voice.

Auxiliary Verbs

Auxiliary verb *shall* = British sometimes use *shall* to express the future.

- Example, 'I shall go home now.'
- Americans find *shall* formal so they use 'I will go home now.'

Auxiliary Verbs

In question form, a British might say, 'Shall we go now?' while an American would say, 'Should we go now?'

Americans express lack of obligation, by saying: 'You do not need to come to work today.' British drop the helping verb and contract *not*. 'You needn't come to work today.'

Past Tense Verbs

- Dream, dreamed, and dreamt
- Burn, burned, and burnt
- Lean, leaned, and leant
- Americans tend to use the -ed ending; British use -t ending

Past Participle

The most striking morphological difference between GA and British English is the use of the past participle form *gotten* in GA. This was the usual form in British English two centuries ago.

Past Tense Verbs

In the past participle form, Americans tend to use the *-en* ending for some irregular verbs.

Example: Americans say, 'I have never *gotten* caught.'

British say, 'I have never *got* caught.'

Overall

There are considerable distinct features of GA grammar.

Topic – 175: American English Vocabulary

There never have been any major linguistic differences between British and American English as such. Moreover, the last hundred years or so have seen an increasing similarity between British and American English.

Reasons

- Partly due to ever-improving communication systems
- Partly due to the impact of American culture, notably through television and film

However, most of the differences between the English of the UK and the AmE are vocabulary differences.

American Lexicon

North America has given the English lexicon thousands of words and phrases. Several thousand are now used in English as spoken internationally.

Creation of an American Lexicon

The process of coining new lexical items started as soon as the colonists began borrowing names for unfamiliar flora, fauna, and topography from the Native American languages. The process of coining new lexical items started as soon as the colonists began borrowing names for unfamiliar flora, fauna, and topography from the Native American languages.

Examples

- Names such as opossum, raccoon, squash, and moose
- Other Native American loanwords such as moccasin

The languages of the other colonizing nations also added to the American vocabulary. For instance:

- Cookie, stoop, pit from Dutch
- Kindergarten from German

- Barbeque from Spanish

19th Century Onward

- Bartender, Patrolman
- Busboy
- White-collar, Boss
- Employee
- Department store, Supermarket, Thrift store, Gift shop, Drugstore, Gas station

A number of words and meanings that originated in Middle English or Early Modern English and that have been in everyday use in the United States dropped out in most varieties of British English. Terms such as **fall** ('autumn'), **diaper** ('nappy'), and **candy** ('sweets') are often regarded as Americanisms. Fall, for example, came to denote the season in 16th century England, a contraction of Middle English expressions like 'fall of the leaf' and 'fall of the year.'

Example

In GA, the season following summer is referred to as the *fall*, as used to be the case in British English where the term *autumn* is now used. While the term fall gradually became obsolete in Britain, it became a more common term in North America.

- British= the front of a car = *bonnet*
- Americans= *hood*
- British= *holidays*
- Americans= *vacation*
- Londoners= *flats*
- New Yorkers= *apartments*
- Gotten (past participle of get) is often considered to be an Americanism.
- But it came from BrE and still continues to be used in some areas.

Lesson 36

AMERICAN VS BRITISH ENGLISH: A COMPARISON**Topic – 176: Difference Between Attitudes of Speakers**

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

- Firstly, we need to take history into account.
- The process of colonization played a role.
- Geography is another aspect.
- Media, commerce, and trade have also played their role.
- The difference in the nature of people must also be considered.

Topic – 177: AmE and BrE: Phonological Differences

Fletcher (1990: 67): The American English pronunciations are those appropriate to the variety of accent known as General American. It is what is spoken by the majority of Americans- with no noticeable eastern or southern accent. It is the appropriate pronunciation for EFL learners who take American English as their model.

/r/ Sound

In RP, this sound disappeared except before vowels. It is not pronounced when it occurs before a consonant or at the end of a word unless the next word begins with a vowel, /r/ Sound.

In American English, especially in the middle and western states, the ‘r’ is pronounced in all positions. Pyles (1971: 261) remarks that some of the prevalent American pronunciations of the words do not occur in standard English e.g., Figure /figjər/, leisure /li:ʒər/, vase /veiz/, and tomato /təmeiətu/. On the other hand, the prevalent British pronunciation of *them* are currently in American English e.g., /figə/, /leʒə/, /vɑ:z/, /təma:təu/. Lyons (1981: 26) states that there are many differences between the speech of the average of well -educated American and that of the well-educated British. Swan (2005: 43-44) clarifies the most important general difference between American and British. To him, some words which are pronounced with /u:/ in most of American English have /ju:/ in British English. These are words in which d, t, or n (and sometimes s or l) are followed by u or ew in writing. British English has one more vowel than American English. This is the round short (/ʊ/ used in word like cot, dog, got, off, stop, and lost). In American English, these words are pronounced either with /ɑ:/ like the first vowel in father or /ɒ:/ like the vowel in caught. Some words written with a+ consonant (e.g., fast) have different pronunciation: with /ɑ:/ in standard southern British English and with /æ / in American and some other varieties of English.

In many varieties of American English, t and d both have a very light voiced pronunciation (/d/) between vowel – so writer and rider, for example can sound the same. In British English, they are quite

different: /raɪtə(r)/ and /raɪdə(r)/. Words ending in unstressed -ile (e.g., fertile, reptile, missile, senile) are pronounced with /aɪ/ in British English, and some are pronounced with /ɪ/ in American English.

- Fertile AmE /fɜːtəl/ (rhyming with turtle)
- BrE /fɜːtəl/ (rhyming with her tile)

Topic – 178: AmE (American English) and BrE (British English): Morphological Differences

This divergence between American English and British English has provided opportunities for humorous comment e.g., one of George Bernard Shaw's characters says that the United States and United Kingdom are 'two countries divided by a common language.' Morphology is the study of words, how they are formed, and their relationship to other words in the same language. It analyzes the structure of words and parts of words, such as stems, root words, prefixes, and suffixes. At the morphological level, difference in AmE and BrE exists.

Word Derivation

- Directional suffix *-ward(s)*:
- **British** *forwards, towards, rightwards*, etc.
- **American** *forward, toward, rightward*, etc.

In both dialects, distribution varies somewhat: In **America** *afterwards, towards*, and *backwards* are not unusual. In **Britain** *forward* is common and standard in phrasal verbs such as *look forward to*. The forms with *-s* may be used as adverbs (or preposition *towards*) but rarely as adjectives in Britain as in America, one says 'an upward motion.' The Oxford Dictionary in 1897 suggested a semantic distinction for adverbs, with ***-wards*** having a more definite directional sense than ***-ward; ds*** are not unusual in America; while in Britain ***forward*** is common.

AmE freely adds the suffix *-s* to *day, night, evening, weekend*, and *Monday*, etc. to form adverbs denoting repeated or customary action: ***I used to stay out evenings; the library is closed Saturdays***. This usage has its roots in Old English, but many of these constructions are now regarded as American. In BrE, the agentive ***-er*** suffix is commonly attached to *football, cricket, or netball*, and occasionally to *basketball* and *volleyball*). AmE usually uses ***football player***. AmE English writers make new compound words from common phrases; for example, ***health care*** is now being replaced by ***healthcare*** on both sides of the Atlantic. AmE has made certain words in this fashion that are still treated as phrases in BrE.

In compound nouns of the form verb><noun>, sometimes AmE prefers the bare infinitive where BrE favors the gerund. Generally, AmE has a tendency to drop inflectional suffixes, thus preferring **clipped forms**: compare *cookbook* v. *cooking book*; *Smith, age 40* v. *Smith, aged 40*; *skim milk* v. *skimmed milk*; *dollhouse* v. *dolls' house*; *barber shop* v. *barber's shop*. In British English, the past tense and past participle of the verbs: learn, spoil, spell, burn, dream, smell, spill, leap and others can be either irregular (learnt spoiltetc) or regular (learned, spoiled ...etc). But in AmE, no irregular forms exist.

Topic – 179: AmE and BrE: Lexical and Semantic Differences

A lexicon is not made up of different words but different ‘units of meaning’ (lexical units or lexical items e.g., ‘fly ball’ in baseball), including idioms and figures of speech.

Words and Phrases: Origins in AmE

These are easy to understand.

- **Sidewalk** (pavement)
- **Gas** (gasoline/petrol)
- **Counterclockwise** (anticlockwise)
- **Elevator** (lift)

Words and Phrases: Origins in AmE

Certain terms that are heard less frequently, especially those likely to be absent or rare in American popular culture e.g., ‘**copacetic** (satisfactory)’ are unlikely to be understood by most BrE speakers.

With Different Meanings

Words such as *bill* and *biscuit* are used regularly in both AmE and BrE but mean different things. In AmE, a bill is paper money (dollar bill), though it can mean the same as in BrE, an invoice (Electricity bill). In AmE, a biscuit (from the French twice baked as in *biscotto*) is what in BrE is called a scone and a biscuit in BrE is in AmE a cookie (from the Dutch ‘little cake.’)

In the UK, the word *whilst* is historically acceptable as a conjunction (as an alternative to *while*, especially prevalent in some dialects). In AmE, only *while* is used in both contexts. In the UK, the term period for a full stop is not used. In AmE, the term full stop is rarely used for the punctuation mark. For example: He said, ‘Terrorism is wrong full stop’, whereas in AmE, ‘Terrorism is wrong period’.

Americans say ‘Happy holidays’= especially when the subject’s religious observances are not known. In the UK, ‘holiday season’ and ‘holiday period’ = summer = time off; AmE uses *vacation* for it. The American English has lost a lot of vocabulary items which have survived in British English. For example, ‘waistcous’ is a name of a garment that American English calls a ‘vest.’ Overall, there are a lot of differences in BrE and AmE at lexical and semantic levels.

Topic – 180: AmE and BrE (Syntactic Differences)

AmE and BrE share most, but not all, syntactic patterns. In AmE, collective nouns such as *family*, *staff* and *committee*, and names referring to sports teams, companies, organizations, and institutions generally require singular verbs.

Example

Consider these headlines:

- Shadow Government is at Work in Secret.
- Ballard Team has High Hopes for Deep-Water Robot.
- Ordinarily, sentences in which a plural verb agrees with a collective noun would be ungrammatical, such as these from Corpus (BNC):
- Once ITV realize the BBC are going ahead . . . ; the Government was driven to the desperation of calling upon alchemy.
- A few collective nouns such as police require a plural verb in AmE and BrE.
- NAE commonly uses singular forms in compounds like drug enforcement unit and new fair market rent policy.
- When the first element of a compound is itself a compound containing a plural form (hate crimes), the larger compound incorporates that plural (hate crimes policy).
- American style is more tolerant of lengthy noun string modifiers.

Example

- *Department spokeswoman Darla Jordan;*
- *Death penalty opponent Helen Prejean;*
- *Celebrity capital punishment opponent Susan Sarandon*

In restrictive relative clauses, both *that* and *which* occur but in news writing, AmE shows a somewhat stronger preference for *that* than BrE, and in conversation a preference twice as strong.

- Question: *Have you finished the assignment?*
- AmE and BrE permit **Yes, I have.**
- Only BrE permits **Yes, I have done.**
- Asked whether flying time from London to Chicago varies, British flight attendants may respond: **It can do**, while their American counterparts are more likely to say: **It can.**
- In AmE, **got** serves as a simple past tense meaning ‘**became.**’

She got tired when she got home or ‘**arrived**’.

- In AmE both **got** and **gotten** serve as past participles but **gotten** is preferred.
- BrE example: *No amount of NATO pressure would have got it even on to paper.*
- *Have you got one?* is a frequent AmE equivalent to BrE *Do you have one?*

Example

- An advertising campaign asks, *Got milk?*
- *Gotten* means ‘received, acquired’, as in *Have you gotten any?* and *have got* means ‘have’ (We’ve got ID cards now.)
- AmE displays characteristic adverb use, as with the amplifier **real**, as in *real good* and *real fast*.
- US speakers prefer the amplifier *pretty* (*pretty easy*, *pretty good*) over *quite* as an amplifier (*quite big*, *quite easy*).
- *Quite* occurs less frequently in AmE as compared to BrE.

Preposition

There are a lot of differences in the choice of prepositions:

- The *Englishman* lives in a village.
- The *American* lives on it.
- The *Englishman* gets into or out of a car.
- The *American* gets on or off a car.
- In *British English* at the weekend is used, while in *American English* on the weekend.
- The *British* says ‘please write to me soon.’
- The *American* says ‘please write me soon.’

Lesson 37**AUSTRALIAN ENGLISH****Topic – 181: Australian English: Speakers and Demographics**

By 1783, the thirteen colonies in America were lost to Britain but the English language was not thrown out. Now, as the British Empire expanded, English spread to other continents: Australasia, Africa, and Asia. Australia's original inhabitants, the Australian Aborigines, have the longest continuous cultural history in the world, having begun to inhabit this vast island some 40,000–70,000 years ago. The first known Europeans to reach the continent we now call Australia were the Portuguese and Dutch sailors in the sixteenth century. Initially, it was known as Nova Hollandia 'New Holland'; the name Australia is derived from Latin terra australis incognita 'unknown southern land.' Then it seemed to Europeans that, logically, there must be a great Southland to balance the weight of the northern landmass of Europe and Asia. Expeditions were dispatched, among them the three voyages of James Cook, in quest of this Southland. British settlement in Australia began slightly later after the American War of Independence.

The expansion of British influence and power continued at an even greater rate during the nineteenth century. In 1768, Lieutenant Cook was sent on a scientific expedition to the Pacific to convey members of the Royal Society to Tahiti to observe the transit of the planet Venus across the sun. To accomplish the mission, Cook was to find the unknown southern continent, a task that took him to Australia aboard a 98-foot refitted former coal-hauling bark named the Endeavour. He navigated the coast of New Holland which he claimed for Great Britain under the name of New South Wales. It was Cook and his men, including the famous botanist Joseph Banks, who later made white settlement in Australia possible.

Australia, Aussie, Oz

Australia is a young nation: the Commonwealth of Australia was formed from a combination of states only in 1901, and the Australian Capital Territory was later established for a new capital, Canberra.

During the First World War, Aussie (pronounced 'Ozzie') became an informal short form for both the noun Australian and the adjective (as in Aussie Rules for a code of football which originated in Australia). These days, there is also an informal name for Australia: OZ. For obvious reasons the joking expression Down Under, used to refer to Australasia, is interpreted by many Australians and New Zealanders as showing a snobbish 'northern hemisphere perspective.'

Although English has been spoken in Australia for more than 200 years, Australian English began to be seriously recognized as a distinct variety of English only after the Second World War.

Topic – 182: Australia: The First Fleet

In 1788, after an eight-month voyage from Portsmouth, eleven British ships – the First Fleet, as it is always called – with convicts, marines, and civilians aboard – anchored in Botany Bay on the eastern coast of Australia. The bay had been given this name after Joseph Banks, and his fellow botanist Daniel Solander had observed many new plants there. But Arthur Phillip, captain of the First Fleet and the first appointed Governor of New South Wales, found the bay an unsuitable site. He decided to land at Port

Jackson (now known as Sydney Harbour), which he found as ‘the finest harbor in the world.’ The First Fleet anchored in Sydney Harbour on 26 January 1788, a date which was to become Australia Day. Considering its consequence, the First Fleet does not seem impressive in size. The eleven ships carried just over 1,000 men and women.

Most of them were convicts being transported to the penal colony of New South Wales to serve a seven-year term of hard labour – effectively a life sentence in view of the meager opportunities to return. Over the next 80 years, 160,000 convicts were sent to Australia. In New South Wales, transportation had ceased by 1840, but it continued to Tasmania until 1852 and to the West until 1868. Meanwhile, the immigrant population was augmented by free colonists. The language brought to Australia was essentially late eighteenth-century English. The precise origins of the Australian accent are unknown. The older view that it was essentially Cockney no longer holds up. Most scholars agree that, from the earliest settlement, there was a range of the British accents present but that London English was a strong component. The early Australians were largely working-class townsfolk, many of them Londoners.

The discovery of gold in 1851 accelerated immigration, so after ten years later the Australian settler population had reached almost 1.2 million – a threefold increase in ten years. The gold rush also brought to an end the transportation of convicts since the gold seemed to provide an opportunity for reward, rather than punishment. From this time the pattern of immigration gradually changed in that Australia became increasingly populated by people of different nationalities. But the first large-scale non-British/Irish immigration did not occur until after the Second World War.

Since 1967, Australia has reoriented itself from being a British bastion in the Southern hemisphere with a white population made up of descendants of English, Scots, Welsh, and Irish. This was the beginning of becoming a multicultural immigration country attracting South and East Europeans and in recent years, many Asians. Although English has been spoken in Australia for more than 200 years, Australian English began to be seriously recognized as a distinct variety of English only after the Second World War.

Topic – 183: What Becomes Australian English?

Australia is a young nation, but its aboriginal population has been living here for thousands of years. ‘If the history of language in Australia, currently thought in the more conservative estimates to span about 40,000 years, is reduced in imagination to a period of 24 hours, the share of English, on the same scale, is about seven minutes.’

Archaeological evidence suggests that the first Aborigines migrated from Southeast Asia to Australia. Among them, the indigenous people do not have a uniform name but accept the term *borigines*, derived from Latin aborigine meaning ‘from the beginning.’

The first Aboriginal loanword in English was appropriately kangaroo, today’s national symbol of Australia. It was recorded by the naturalist Joseph Banks in 1770.

Captain Cook, in his diary, has mentioned a strange hopping animal which, according to him was called by natives *Kangooroo* or *Kanguru*. In the language that the first expedition encountered, *ganjurru* was the name for one particular species of *kangaroo*, not a generic name.

Most Aboriginal loanwords refer to the Australian fauna and flora, such as the small yellow-green parrot budgerigar, the wild dog dingo, and the arboreal marsupial.

If you are travelling in Australia, it is fascinating to read road signs that are a mixture of Anglo-Saxon names like Liverpool and Newcastle and Aboriginal names like *Wagga Wagga* and *Indooroopilly*. The white settlement in Australia was disastrous for both the indigenous population and their languages. Today, the Aborigines number less than 400,000, many of them speaking English only. Among the surviving Australian Aboriginal languages, about 50 are in active first-language use, mostly in places remote from major population centers.

It is feared that it will not be long before most of these languages die out. In Australia, New Zealand, and South Africa, there is little regional variation in the language. BUT social and ethnic variations exist. Some speakers use a 'broader' accent, that is, one that is remoter from RP, and use more local Australian words in their vocabulary, but similar variations are found all over the country.

Topic – 184: Australian English Today

Considering its geographical spread, Australian English is remarkably uniform. To understand it, we need to compare it to the situation in North America. 'From Perth to Sydney,' says the phonetician John Wells, 'is over 3000 kilometers, yet their accents are virtually indistinguishable.' Australia is, after all, the sixth largest country in the world, and the English language has had little more than 200 years to spread into all regions of the country.

Generally speaking, variations of accent are socially or ethnically determined; it is interesting that they are not geographically determined. Some vowel sounds resemble those found in Cockney or 'London vernacular.' These derive ultimately from the language brought to Australia by the early immigrants, since many of them came from the southeast of England.

The characteristic sound of Australian speech is found especially in its vowels. Here are a few differences between 'broader' Australian English and standardized British pronunciation RP: In words such as say, in Australian English the diphthong is a wider sound pronounced close to /a/ where RP has /e/. In words such as now, where RP has /aʊ/, the diphthong approximates to /æʊ/ or even /ɛə/. RP-vowels /i:/ and /u:/ are often pronounced as diphthongs, so that see and do resemble /sə/ and /dəʊ/.

Some vowels are pronounced with the tongue higher than in RP, so that ham sounds rather like /hɛm/, and pen sounds rather like /pɛn/. In words like happy, the final -y is pronounced /i/ in RP but has a more salient pronunciation in Australian English – more like a long vowel: /hɛpi:/. The most common vowel in English, the unstressed schwa vowel /ə/, is more generally used than in RP. For example, chatted in RP is pronounced as /ætɪd/, whereas in Australian English, it is pronounced with a schwa. Overall, Australian English has uniformity in features.

Topic – 185: Features of Australian English

The vocabulary of Australian English tends to be colloquial and informal, much like the stereotypical 'Aussie.' The language is full of imaginative, colourful and fun expressions, such as these:

- *Full as a goog* 'goog means 'egg' = dead drunk'
- *Hoon (also yobbo)* 'loutish youth'

Other Examples

- *Ocker* = the archetypal uncultivated Australian man
- *Prang* = minor car accident
- *Sanger or sanga* = sandwich
- *Sheila* = girl
- *A beaut sheila* = an attractive girl

Typical of colloquial Australian English are shortened words:

- *Beaut* for beautiful
- Words ending in the suffix -o or -y/-ie like *arvo* (for afternoon) and *tinnie* (for a can of beer)

The Australian settlers came upon flora and fauna so completely alien to their previous experience that the words in their language had to be given new meanings, and new words had to be coined or borrowed from native languages.

There are now over 10,000 English words and phrases with an Australian origin or meaning. Some examples of Australianisms that can be found in an Australian English dictionary, such as The Macquarie Dictionary or the Australian Oxford Dictionary, include: Barbie, also spelled bar-b-q, BBQ 'barbecue' bush 'uncultivated expanse of land remote from settlement,' as in bush nurse, bush breakfast, bush house, bushman, and g'day ('good day') an expression used as a greeting or a parting during the day. Another example is: lay-by 'buying an article on time payment' corresponding to US installment, UK hire-purchase. (In the UK a lay-by is an area beside a highway where vehicles can pull off the road and park, called a rest area in Australia).

Phonology

Australian English has the same inventory of phonemes as RP, but nearly all the vowels are realized differently. For example, /a/ and /e/ are closer than in RP, so that to English ears Australian *pan* sounds like *pen*, and the /a:/ phoneme, in words like *park* and *path*, is realized as a front [a:] (as against the more backed [a:] of RP). In RP, the words *taxes* and *taxis* are both /'taksɪz/, whereas in Australian English the first is /'taksəz/ while the second is /'taksi:z/.

Lesson 38**SOUTH-ASIAN ENGLISH****Topic – 186: Introduction to South-Asian English**

The worldwide spread of English is an unprecedented phenomenon for which we do not find any example in human history. English was brought to the subcontinent in the early seventeenth century by British colonialism. Today, it is spoken as a second language by 3 percent of the population of Bangladesh, Bhutan, India, the Maldives, Nepal, Pakistan, and Sri Lanka. In numerical terms, we can safely say that there are approximately 33 million English speaking people.

South Asian English is sometimes called ‘Indian English’ as British India included most of the region, but today, the varieties of English are usually divided according to the modern states. In India, there are 25 million users of English, even more than Australia. There are intra-national and intra-regional role of ‘link’ language among people of diverse linguistic backgrounds. After so many years of independence, the countries of South Asia still use English to varying degrees in the domains of government administration, law, the military, higher education, commerce, the media, and the arts.

In Pakistan, English has the status of an official language alongside the national language, Urdu. In Sri Lanka, there are efforts to ‘peoplize’ English. In Bangladesh, despite strong Bangla movement, English enjoys importance. In South Asian countries, it plays the role of the international medium for communication with the global community of nations.

Topic – 187: Features of South Asian English

English was introduced to South Asia in the early 17th century and was reinforced by the long rule of the British Empire. Today, it is spoken as a second language by about 33 million people, 3% of the total population. Today, the varieties of South Asian English are divided according to the modern states:

- Bangladeshi English
- Indian English
- Nepali English
- Pakistani English
- Sri Lankan English

Although it is fairly homogeneous across the region, sharing ‘linguistic features and tendencies at virtually all linguistic levels,’ there are also differences based on various factors.

Indian English

It has words of Indian vernaculars that have made their way into the English language.

Examples include jungle, tank, bungalow, shampoo, verandah.

It has political, sociological, and administrative terms of modern India: *dharna*, *hartal*, *eveteasing*, *votebank*, *swdeshi*, *tiffin*, *hillstation*, *gymkhana*. We need to notice its resemblance with Pakistani English.

Vocabulary

- Our company lays great stress on technical training and knowledge ‘upgradation’.
- The Prime Minister greeted the presspersons with a ‘namaskar’ and a broad smile.
- I read the newspaper ‘matrimonials’ on Sundays, especially the ‘English-knowing’ intelligentsia.

Spelling and Pronunciation

Most Indian languages, unlike English, have a nearly phonetic spelling, so the spelling of a word is a highly reliable guide to its pronunciation. The word ‘of’ is usually pronounced with a /f/ instead of a /v/ as in most other accents. Pronunciation of <house> as [hauz] is prevalent for both noun and verb instead of [haus] as noun and [hauz] as verb.

Pakistani English

- *In-Charge*— a casual as well as a formal title given to unit, group, or division heads.
- *Same to same*— an expression to indicate something is exactly the same to some other thing.
- *Out of station*—out of town.
- *Got no lift*—received no attention or assistance from someone.
- *Miss* is used to address or refer to female teachers, whatever their marital status.
- *Madam* is used to address and refer to females in positions of authority, usually a superior.
- *Cousin-brother* (male first cousin) & *cousin-sister* (female first cousin).
- *Overhead bridge* (bridge meant for pedestrians).
- *Flyover* (overpass or an over-bridge over a section of road or train tracks).

Topic – 188: South Asian English: Imperialistic Legacy and Regional Asset

Languages of Imperialism in South Asia have a long history. In the second millennium, B.C.E. speakers of Old Indo-Aryan came into South Asia from the northwest in present day Afghanistan and spread southward and eastward, partly by peaceful settlement but largely by force of arms. In a few hundred years, the invaders had spread across the Indus Valley civilization (now Pakistan), reached modern Bihar and Bengal, and even migrated to Sri Lanka. The use of their language, in the form of Sanskrit, has persisted in South Asia to the present day.

In the form of its descendants, the modern Indo-Aryan languages, Indo-Aryan is the mother tongue of a large proportion of the population of every country in South Asia. But, Sanskrit itself as a

superposed language is the clearest linguistic legacy from this early imperialism in the area. Sanskrit is related to Hinduism in special ways. Persian, similarly, has been associated with Islam. The coming of Islam to South Asia is generally dated to 711 C.E., when an Arab naval force entered what is now Pakistan from the Arabian Sea and conquered the Indus valley.

This incursion probably did not introduce the use of Persian, however, that came with the raids of Mahmud of Ghazni in the eleventh century. Although, at one point, Mahmud officially reintroduced Arabic as the language of the laws and administration, it was Persian, the second great Islamic language that was the principal language of his empire, centered in Lahore. Persian continued to be the chief court language of successive Muslim kingdoms, sultanates, and empires down to the Moghul Empire, centered in Delhi which yielded to the power of Great Britain.

In all these polities, Persian was a major and often the dominant language. Limited uses of Persian have persisted in South Asia until the present time.

Topic – 189: Syntax of South Asian English

In recent years, there has been a growing recognition of institutionalized nonnative varieties of English (such as South Asian English). Existing descriptions of IVEs cover only small areas of lexical, morphological, and phonological structure with even less attention paid to syntax.

Although these sentences are not necessarily ungrammatical in other varieties of English, they would probably be considered unidiomatic.

Examples

- Since her birth, she has been under the hands of men (subservient to).
- Women in this century have come very forward.
- The present woman knows her rights.
- Above half are conservatives.

See and Look

- If we see only in the direction of art and literature
- Now, look the difference between

House for Home

Women came out of the house for studying.

Legs for Feet

She can stand on her own legs and face the society.

Even, Also

- In our country, even women also encourage.
- Even India is also changing.
- Even in these days also.

Discourse Adverbials

- Like this, the position of women has been changing.
- Like this, she lived.
- It is noteworthy that in grammar a few characteristics are shared by all South Asian users of English.

Here are a few examples:

Examples of Question Formation

- There is a tendency to form information questions without changing the position of the subject and auxiliary items:
- What you would like to eat?
- Where you would like to go?

Examples of Reduplication

- Hot hot coffee
- Small small things
- To give crying crying

Examples of Verb Aspect

- The use of present progressive with stative verbs is quite common.
- I am having an aunt in Chicago.
- I am loving it (ad for McDonalds).
- I am having a cold' (B. Kachru 1983:497, 510).

Topic – 190: The Future of English in South-Asia

Linguistically and culturally, South Asian English is a very interesting and dynamic phenomenon. It is interesting because English has become one of the languages of communication for South Asians and as such a distinctive form of South Asian English has emerged. It is dynamic also because the English language is constantly evolving and changing in South Asia, as it is constantly being used to express

nuances of South Asian cultures and sensibilities. ‘South Asia is a linguistic area with one of the longest histories of contact, influence, use, and teaching and learning of English-in-diaspora in the world.’ B. Kachru (1986:36) asserts: ‘[the] use of the term South Asian English is not to be understood as indicative of linguistic homogeneity in this variety or of a uniform linguistic competence.’

The Issue of Identities

The term identity can be examined in more than one sense. In a regional sense, it has an identifiable speech fellowship in South Asia. The second sense is functional which relates to recognizing the South Asian contexts and domains of use as sociolinguistically and functionally appropriate. The third sense occurs in claiming in-group identity with other users. English occupies a very special position in the lives of South Asians. In South Asia, English has been nativized to such an extent that it is considered not a foreign or an alien language. Creative writing in English is at its peak today. More and more South Asian writers are emerging as great writers, winning coveted prizes such as the Pulitzer Prize (Jhumpa Lahiri) and the Booker Prize (Arundhati Roy). This indicates that English is clearly here to stay.

Lesson 39**ENGLISH LANGUAGE IN THE 21ST CENTURY: FEATURES OF ENGLISHES****Topic – 191: The Regency of World English and the Future of English**

People have been predicting the emergence of English as a global language for at least two centuries. In a genuine sense of ‘global,’ the phenomenon is relatively recent.

English as a first language is used in the USA, Canada, Britain, Ireland, Australia, New Zealand, South Africa, and a scattering of other territories. It is the official language which means it is the primary medium of communication in such domains as government, the law courts, broadcasting, the press, and the educational system. English now has some kind of special administrative status in over seventy countries, such as Ghana, Nigeria, Zimbabwe, India, Singapore, and Vanuatu. English achieves a special role when it is made a priority in a country’s foreign-language teaching policy; it has no official status, but it is nonetheless the foreign language which children are most likely to encounter when they arrive at school.

Over 100 countries treat English as a foreign language (chiefly in Europe, Asia, North Africa, and Latin America). The term ‘global English’ thus had a genuine application in the year 2000. However, it could not have had such an application a half-century before. The prospect that a lingua franca might be needed as a practical tool for the whole world is something which has emerged strongly only since the 1950s. A postwar demand for a mechanism was enabling nations to talk and listen to each other on a regular basis. The actual number of nations in the world participating in that mechanism was soon to increase significantly.

The United Nations had only 51 member states when it began in 1945, but this had risen to 191 members by 2002. The consequence is an increasing reliance on the concept of a ‘working language’ that is English. The only other alternative can be translation which is not feasible because it is very expensive. Overall, we can say that today English is expanding its circle and power.

Topic – 192: Number of English Speakers

Various sources of estimates of speakers of English are found which include:

- Linguistic surveys
- Individual authors
- Using various criteria

Each has an in-built uncertainty, the nature of which needs to be appreciated before the totals can be used with any cogency. The first-language totals cited in the 1990s were swinging between 350 and 450 million. Reason of difference in these estimates is that the status of pidgins and creoles historically derived from English are not fixed. If these are considered ‘varieties of English,’ then their speakers will be included, and we will move towards accepting the higher total.

The second and foreign-language totals, often considered together, are even more difficult to be sure about. The reason is that fluency is a continuum. A criterion of native-speaker-like fluency would clearly produce a relatively small figure and including every beginner would produce a relatively large one. British Council has referred to a billion (i.e. thousand million) people engaged in learning English (British Council, 1997). That figure needs to be interpreted cautiously because it includes all learners, from beginners to advanced users. In India, for example, estimates of the numbers of English speakers have varied between 3% (Kachru, 1986: 54), 19% (Encyclopedia Britannica), and 33% (reporting a 1997 India Today survey).

This in real term represents a range between 30 million and over 330 million. The world population passed the 6 billion mark during late 1999. Approximately one in four of the world's population is now capable of communicating to a useful level in English. There is evidently a major shift taking place in the center of gravity of the language. From the 1960s, when the majority of speakers were first-language speakers, now more people are speaking it as a second language, or a foreign language. If we combine these two latter groups, the ratio of native to non-native is around 1:3. Graddol (1999: 61) suggests that the proportion of the world's population who has English as a first language will decline from over 8 per cent in 1950 to less than 5 per cent in 2050. The situation is without precedent for an international language. Overall, we can say that the number of speakers of English as second and foreign language is increasing speedily.

Topic – 193: Cross Linguistic Influence and the Spread of English

The crucial factor in the development of English over the last few centuries is its role in the world. English has been brought into contact with new environments and languages and, as a result, has developed in new directions, giving rise to different varieties of English.

The English language of today reflects many centuries of development. The political and social events that have in the course of English history so profoundly affected the English people in their national life had generally had a recognizable effect on their language. The Roman Christianizing of Britain in 597 brought England into contact with Latin civilization and made significant additions to our vocabulary.

The Scandinavian invasions resulted in a considerable mixture of the two peoples and their languages. The Norman Conquest made English for two centuries the language mainly of the lower classes, while the nobles and those associated with them used French on almost all occasions. And when English once more regained supremacy as the language of all elements of the population, it was English that greatly changed in both form and vocabulary from what it had been in 1066.

In a similar way, the Hundred Years' War, the rise of an important middle class, the Renaissance, and the development of England as a maritime power had an impact on English. The expansion of the British Empire and the growth of commerce and industry, of science and literature, have, each in their way, contributed to the development of the language. History of English is in fact a history of quite divergent societies which have caused the language to change and become enriched as it responds to their own special needs.

Today We have:

- British English
- American English
- African English
- South Asian English
- Australian English
- And many more varieties.

Topic – 194: The Expanding Circle of English

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

English is Spoken in Circles:

The Indian-American scholar Braj Kachru has mentioned three concentric circles of English.

The Inner Circle= First language.

The Inner Circle

The inner circle includes the United States, Canada, and the West Indies in the New World; Britain and Ireland in Europe; and Australia, New Zealand, and South Africa in the Southern Hemisphere. In these eight regions, over 320 million people use English as a first language. They enjoy a privilege since they learn, for free, to speak this global language with a native accent.

The Outer Circle

The outer circle refers to a circle where English is a second, often official or semi-official language but where most users of the language are not native speakers. In the Outer Circle, we mostly find people who live in former British colonies, such as Kenya and Tanzania in Africa, and India, Pakistan, Malaysia, and Singapore in Asia.

The Expanding Circle

The circle where English is learned and used as a foreign language is known as the expanding circle. It encompasses large parts of the world where English is learned as a foreign language because it is found useful, or indeed indispensable, for international contacts. This circle now seems to be ever-expanding, strengthening the claims of English as the international language of today.

In the not too distant future, it will be appropriate to rename the ‘Expanding Circle’ as the ‘Expanded Circle.’

Topic – 195: Coming Full Circle: Emergence of World English

English has gone global. Today, English dominates the world stage in a number of language uses. It is the main language of publishing, science, technology, commerce, diplomacy, air-traffic control, and popular music. The reasons for this are to do with the political and economic power of Britain in the nineteenth century and the United States in the twentieth century. These same reasons also account for a dramatic increase in the number of users of English. In the sixteenth century, there were approximately 3-million speakers of English. Today, there are over 300 million native speakers of English. To this, one could add a further 300 million who regularly speak English as a second language.

In fact, it has been estimated that in total around a billion people use English with varying degrees of proficiency. With the international spread of English, it is perhaps more appropriate now to speak of **WORLD ENGLISHES**.

In this regard, American and British English are the two most important national varieties, in terms both of numbers of speakers and of the world-wide impact (Britain through its former Empire, and North America through its economic power).

Other important varieties of English include those of Australia, Canada, Ireland, New Zealand, and South Africa and there are also various countries in Africa, the subcontinent of India, the Caribbean, and south-east Asia.

It is sometimes claimed that English as an international language will succumb to the same fate as Latin. Around 2,000 years ago, Latin was used throughout Western Europe, North Africa, and Asia Minor (i.e. including the area covered by today's Turkey).

Today, Latin is a dead language, and its descendants - such as Italian, French and Spanish - are separate languages. Do you think this prophecy is likely to be fulfilled? Will English become a group of English languages which are not mutually comprehensible?

Reasons of Emergence of English as World English

A language becomes a world language due to extrinsic reasons and due to the power of the people who speak it. By power we mean political, technological, economic, and cultural power.

Political power is seen in the form of the colonialism that brought English around the world from the sixteenth century, so that by the nineteenth century, the language was one 'on which the sun does not set.'

Industrial Revolution of the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries was an English-language event. The nineteenth century saw the growth in the economic power of the United States. In the twentieth century, cultural power manifested itself in virtually every walk of life through spheres of American influence.

Politics, Economics, Press, Media, Broadcasting, Music, Travel, Communication, and Education- each of these played a role in this regard.

Lesson 40

FUTURE OF ENGLISH**Topic – 196: Social and Political Power Associated with English**

In this topic, the **Crucial Question** is:

- But why English?
- Are there any intrinsic or extrinsic factors at work?
- There is of course nothing intrinsically wonderful about the English language that it should have spread in this way.

Pronunciation and Grammar

Its pronunciation is not simpler than that of many other languages; its grammar is no simpler.

Spelling

Its spelling certainly is not simpler than other languages. A language becomes a world language for a reason only – the power of the people who speak it. But power means different things: it can mean political power, cultural power, technological power, and economic power. Each of these influenced the growth of English at different times.

Political Power

It emerged in the form of the colonialism that brought English around the world from the sixteenth century so that by the nineteenth century, the language was one ‘on which the sun never sets.’

Cultural Power

In the twentieth century, we indeed saw the cultural power manifesting itself in virtually every walk of life through spheres of chiefly American influence. As a result of these different manifestations of cultural power, it is possible to recognize ten domains in which English has become pre-eminent.

Topic – 197: Power of Knowledge and English Today

English is the medium of a great deal of the world’s knowledge, especially in such areas as science and technology and access to knowledge is the business of education.

When we investigate why so many nations have in recent years made English an official language or chosen it as their chief foreign language in schools, one of the most important reasons is always educational. Since the 1960s, English has become the normal medium of instruction in higher education in many countries – including several where the language has no official status. Advanced courses in the Netherlands, for example, are widely taught in English.

No African country uses its indigenous language in higher education; English is being used in the majority of cases. The English language teaching (ELT) business has become one of the major growth industries around the world in the past half century.

The Role of the Internet

The public acquisition of the Internet is another element contributing to the revolutionary linguistic character of the 1990s and the one where the epithet 'revolutionary' is easiest to justify. Although the Internet as a technology had been around since the 1960s, for e-mails and chat, very few people began exploiting it until thirty years later. The World Wide Web itself came into existence only in 1991. But in an extraordinarily short time, people adopted and mastered the technology and in the course of doing that encountered, adapted, and expanded its highly distinctive language.

Now think of slang and jargon, breaking the conventional linguistic rules of spelling and punctuation, and other such practices. It is thought that three-quarters of the world's mail is in English; but as no one monitors the language in which we write our letters, such statistics are highly speculative. Only on the internet, where messages and data can be left for indefinite periods of time, is it possible to develop an idea of how much of the world's everyday communications is actually in English. In this regard, we also need to think of inventions, machines, and discoveries.

Topic – 198: Language Themes for the 21st Century

Because there was so much linguistic innovation and change in the 1990s, several of our assumptions about language which we took for granted in the twentieth century need to be revised for the twenty-first. The arrival of a global language, English, has altered the balance of linguistic power in unprecedented ways, and has generated a whole new set of attitudes about language and languages.

Many speech communities have begun to feel threatened by a situation which can alter the character of their language, or, in the worst case, can cause the use of their language to become so reduced that its very survival is at risk. Several are finding it necessary to introduce protective policies or at least to find ways of managing the effects of the linguistic changes they are experiencing.

At an international level, such as in the European Union, more sophisticated strategies are to be implemented to safeguard the principle of language equivalence while recognizing the practical fact that virtually everyone speaks English. At the same time, communities want to exploit the opportunities for empowerment opened up by the availability of an international lingua franca.

They find themselves having to take fresh measures, such as devoting resources to English language teaching. Also introducing an English-language dimension at senior levels of management can be noticed. Tourist potential is maintained by incorporating an English interpreting facility into important venues.

Issue

Learners and teachers have to get to grips with a rapidly diversifying language in which evolving regional standards and an increasing number of 'New Englishes' complicate a world where once only British and American English ruled.

Moreover, the process of change has been radically affected by the arrival of the Internet. The net-speak community is unprecedented in its size today. So, here we need to consider the possible language themes for the 21st Century. There is a need for fresh policies and strategies. Teachers find that they must give their students exposure to new varieties and forms of English.

There are concerns regarding examination system. There is also a need for a respectful attention to regional accents and dialects, both nationally and internationally. Legal status and system of documents or the copyright position of creative work is another aspect of concern.

There is an unprecedented linguistic crisis in its scale and urgency, and in the twenty-first century, there is a huge responsibility on governments, international organizations, philanthropists, artists, and activists.

Topic – 199: Future of English

English Tomorrow

It is dangerous to extrapolate or to prophesy about the linguistic scenario of tomorrow's world. None of us can guess; what the English language will be like in a hundred years' time? The changes of recent decades suggest what forces are at work in the language today and the likely shape of things in the next few decades. But the history of the language in the coming century will depend on the history of the community.

One of the striking things at the moment is the expansion going on in the vocabulary. If this continues, the change over a century will be comparable to that of such earlier periods as 1300 to 1400 or 1550 to 1650. Another trend is dialect-mixing. Unless some global disaster disrupts world communications, this is likely to continue.

In England, other educated regional varieties of the language have achieved parity of esteem. Now it is normal for TV services in the English regions to have announcers and presenters who use the local form of the language. In pronunciation, such trends as the diphthongization of the long close vowels may well continue and could lead to further changes in the vowel system.

In grammar, the trends of the past thousand years continue in small ways. More substantial changes could be caused by the permeation of the standard language by usages which at present are informal and/or non-standard. In grammar, for example, past-tense forms like 'I done' might become acceptable, as might the conflation of adjective and adverb forms.

Perhaps more controversially, the reduced forms used in electronic communications such as text messaging and e-mail, like L8 for 'late' and LOL for 'laugh out loud,' might find their way into other kinds of written usage.

What we can be sure of is that the process of change, which we have traced from the early Indo-European records up to modern times, is still going on and will continue. It requires an effort of detachment to recognize current change for what it is. We shall recognize that our behavior is simply that of one group at one point in time, and that in the next generation, the innovations that we deplore may well have become completely respectable and indeed uniquely right for the users.

Moreover, why not enjoy the language that you speak; why not enjoy the richness and variety. In fact, the whole of nature is in flux, and so is the whole of human life and language.

Topic – 200: Factors that Will Determine the Future of English

In this topic, the following points are discussed:

- What will determine the future of English? Which factors should we consider in this regard?
- Is it the number of people?
- May be there is going to be a decline now after four centuries in the first language speakers. But what about speakers of English as second and foreign language?

Centrifugal vs. Centripetal Forces

However, history may no longer be a guide to what is happening to English today. In fact, the parallel with Latin is not perfect. One of the consequences of globalization is that through the media we have immediate access to other languages and two varieties of English other than our own, in ways that have come to be available but recently. And this is altering the manner in which people are aware of the language.

Think of a group of people in an out-of-the-way village in Pakistan- clustering around a television -hearing BBC News. With a whole range of fresh auditory models becoming routinely available, it is easy to see how the type of English spoken in different countries could move in fresh directions.

Global satellite communication has changed the whole scenario and is acting as the pull force imposed by the need for identity. Both centrifugal and centripetal forces operate in English. Alongside the need to reflect local situations and identities which foster diversity, there is the need for mutual comprehensibility which fosters standardization.

People need to be able to understand each other, both within a country and internationally. There has always been a need for lingua francas; but now more than ever, we need a world language. And as supra-national organizations grow, the need becomes more pressing. The 191 members of the UN are there not simply to express their identities but also because they want to talk to each other.

We know and understand that Standard English is not identical everywhere. Generally speaking, there are similarities in writing but dissimilarities in speaking. The history of Latin is no guide to the future of English. These centripetal forces that are at work today were lacking a thousand years ago. Once the Roman Empire had begun to fragment, there was nothing to stop the centrifugal forces tearing spoken Latin apart. In the Middle Ages, it was very easy for communities to be isolated from the rest of the world. Today, it is virtually impossible.

Both centrifugal and centripetal forces exist in the modern world, and for that matter, we need both. We want to express our identity through language and we want to communicate intelligibly through language. We want to be different and we want to be the same.